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Measuring Chinese Economic Sanctions 1949-2020: Introducing the China TIES Dataset

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Abstract:	Despite a surge in research on China's use of economic sanctions, coverage in existing datasets remains inconsistent and incomplete. This article introduces a new dataset on sanction threats and impositions involving China as well as a research framework for expanding knowledge about non-Western sanctions more generally. The Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) dataset includes 131 episodes where China is the sender and 88 episodes where it is the target from 1949-2020, over 70% of which are missing from existing datasets. We document each episode with a standardized narrative and code key variables to ensure interoperability with widely used sanctions datasets.

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Measuring Chinese Economic Sanctions 1949-2020: Introducing the China TIES Dataset

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Abstract

Research on China's use of economic sanctions has proliferated in recent decades, yet coverage of Chinese sanctions in existing sanctions datasets is both inconsistent and incomplete. This article introduces both a new dataset on sanctions involving China as well as a research framework for expanding knowledge about non-Western economic sanctions more generally. The Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) dataset (aka China TIES) includes 131 episodes where China is the sender and 88 episodes where it is the target from 1949-2020. Over 70% of our cases were not captured by the existing datasets. We use the Threat and Imposition of Economic Sanctions dataset (TIES v.4) as a baseline for identifying and coding sanctions episodes and provide a set of standardized narratives documenting each episode with secondary sources. The result is a dataset that is interoperable with TIES but also contains new variables that better capture the informal nature of many Chinese sanctions. We describe the dataset, paying special attention to the ways Chinese sanctions differ from other senders, and we present descriptive statistics for some of the key variables, highlighting the evolution of China's sanctions use over time.[1]

Key words: economic sanctions, economic coercion, China, Chinese foreign policy, dataset

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1 Introduction

Over the past decade, scholars of Chinese foreign policy have taken increasing interest in China's use of economic sanctions and its growing capacity for economic coercion (Lim & Ferguson, 2021; Kastner & Pearson, 2021; Poh, 2021; Zhang, 2019; Lai, 2018; Poh, 2017; Reilly, 2012). However, few scholars working in this new literature have engaged with the substantial body of research on economic sanctions that has matured over the last thirty years. At the same time, the Teaching, Research, and International Policy (TRIPS) Project counts 108 journal articles on sanctions published in top international relations journals from 1990 to 2018, of which 10 focus on East Asia (the majority of these about North Korea) and none focus on China. Surprisingly little overlap exists between these parallel literatures, both of which could be enriched by further comparative analysis of China's sanctions behavior. A key reason for the bifurcated development of these parallel literatures, beyond the normal tendency towards disciplinary insularity, is the lack of comparable data.

Episodes of Chinese sanctions are both underrepresented and inconsistently documented in existing cross-national sanctions datasets. The workhorse dataset for the quantitative sanctions literature is the Threat and Imposition of Economic Sanctions (TIES) data set (Morgan *et al.*, 2009, 2014). TIES is the most exhaustive in its coding and documenting of global sanctions cases, including some China-initiated, as well as China-targeted sanctions. It documents 1412 dyadic sanctions episodes across 41 variables cataloging both the threat and imposition characteristics of the sender and target state. Unfortunately, TIES 4.0 only covers sanction episodes from 1945-2005 while the frequency and intensity of Chinese economic sanctions expanded dramatically after 2010. Other datasets on sanctions such as the Global Sanctions Database (GSDB) (Felbermayr *et al.*, 2020), the EUSANCT Dataset (Weber & Schneider, 2022), and another compiled by the Peterson Institute for International Economics (Hufbauer *et al.*, 1990) focus more exclusively on sanctions episodes involving the European Union and the United States. The GSDB-R2 provides temporal coverage from 1950-2019 but only contains 9 cases where China is the unilateral sender.

Additionally, neither TIES nor GSDB provides any documentation to allow users to verify the facts of individual sanctions episodes. This lack of documentation is manageable for cases of U.S. sanctions where the government publishes detailed sanctions lists, but becomes unmanageable for more ambiguous sanctions episodes where the sender does not officially provide a reason for the sanction or does not acknowledge the use of economic coercion at all. Previous research has noted that sanctions by China or Russia are often more implicit and

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that, unlike sanctions by the US or EU, they are often less formalized and not necessarily codified in official laws or administrative acts (Weber & Schneider, 2022). Indeed, China does not have an administrative equivalent to the US Treasury Office of Foreign Assets Control (OFAC) to administer sanctions. Unlike the US, most of its unliateral sanctions involve import or export restrictions that look more like non-tariff barriers, rather than financial sanctions or export controls. Without documentation, researchers must guess why some episodes are included in these existing datasets while other similar episodes are excluded. At the same time, the Chinese foreign policy literature has not converged upon commonly accepted criteria for what constitutes an episode of economic sanctions or coercion. Debates persist about whether widely reported cases of Chinese economic coercion occurred at all (King & Armstrong, 2013; Poh, 2017; Evenett & Fritz, 2023).

To address these concerns about what counts as an economic sanction episode in Chinese foreign policy, we introduce the Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) aka 'China TIES' Dataset. The CES updates and expands the TIES dataset for sanctions episodes involving China by drawing on newspaper reports as well as scholarship from the Chinese foreign policy studies community. [2] We also cross-reference each economic sanction episode with not only TIES but also GSDB, PIIE, and EUSANCT. Table 1 shows that CES is the most comprehensive dataset of Chinese sanctions by a substantial margin, identifying and documenting 131 episodes of sanctions where China is the sender and at least 88 episodes where it is the target from 1949-2020.

Table 1: Comparing CES to Existing Economic Sanctions Data Sets

Economic Sanctions Data Sets	Coverage	PRC Sender	Unilateral	PRC Target	Narratives
Threat & Imposition of Econ. Sanctions (TIES)	1945-2005	26	20	45	N
Global Sanctions Database (GSDB)	1950-2019	40	9	24	N
Peterson Institute for Intl. Econ. (PIIE)	1914-2006	3	3	0	Y
EUSANCT	1989-2015	1	0	7	N
China Economic Sanctions (CES)	1949-2020	131	65	88	Y

Currently, our data shows that over half of China-involved economic sanctions episodes occurred in the 15 years between 2005-to-2020. 73% of China-involved sanctions activity we

[2]We believe the TIES codebook, with the distinction it draws between threats and impositions, is the most comprehensive and thoughtful treatment of economic sanctions and use it as a baseline for coding our cases.

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identify are not captured by existing economic coercion data, 75 (57%) *China Sender* and 46 (52%) *China Target* economic coercion episodes occur after 2005 –or 56% total.

1.1 Contributions

In addition to extending the TIES data 15 years forward to 2020 using the TIES codebook as a baseline to code existing variables for new cases and identifying cases that TIES missed, we make the important contribution of documenting each case with a publicly accessible narrative. The sanctions episodes in the TIES dataset do not come with any documentation and thus researchers must rely both on the coding decisions of the authors on subjective measures such as the outcome of the episode, as well as the sourcing for this determination. The Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) dataset is not only fully compatible with TIES and EUSANCT but also includes detailed case narratives (and sourcing) that serve as the ground truth for our coding of quantitative measures. Future scholars of Chinese foreign policy can make use of both the data and narratives, modifying our coding as new facts or interpretations of the episodes in question emerge. [3] Scholars of sanctions can easily merge the new China data into current and future versions of TIES as needed.

We also add 21 original new variables[4] that are not part of the original TIES codebook. Some of these track China-specific dimensions of sanctions, such as recurring sanctions threatened or imposed over Taiwan arms sales or Dalai Lama state visits. Other variables, such as 'verified' (Zhang, 2019) help deal with the challenge of documenting implicit or private threats. We look to these traditional red lines for Chinese foreign policy and examine ambiguous statements by government spokespeople that can be interpreted as threats. However, we also add new measures for severity, success, and verified which we believe are important refinements to TIES–the original TIES dataset contains a lot of missing data on these key outcome variables. We believe that CES can complement existing data sources

[3] We take an inclusive approach to counting episodes. Five cases were included in TIES v4 which we are unable to match to a sanctions episode, we keep these in the dataset with the original coding. Similarly, there are sanctions cases - such as the Philippines banana embargo - that were widely reported but subsequently disputed by scholars. We also include these cases but note the disagreement in the narratives. Finally, we challenge the traditional distinction between "political" uses of sanctions in "high politics" and "apolitical" uses of tariffs and trade remedies as "low politics" because the tit-for-tat measures of the U.S.-China Trade War render such a neat distinction to be untenable.

[4] these variables include both substantive and titular variables. A complete list of new variables include: Case Names, Narrative Links, Cross-referenced coding (TIES, PIIE, GSDB), verified, UNSC sponsored, Tibet, Taiwan, human rights, anticipated sender and target costs (CES), sender and target costs (CES), smart sanctions (CES), settlement nature for the sender and target (CES), China Result, success, and China's leadership (paramount).

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by offering possibilities to analyze new forms of economic coercion. We will maintain a web-based repository on GitHub where one can download the updated China episodes in a TIES-compatible format and in a stand-alone format with these new variables. [5]

In sum, we offer not only a timely expansion of TIES but also a framework for expanding knowledge about non-Western economic sanctions more generally. The narratives-based approach that we describe in this paper combines the best of qualitative research and quantitative research methods to foster the accumulation of knowledge about China's economic sanctions. This approach offers an advantage over existing research using TIES by capturing rather the obscuring the nuance in ambiguous sanctions episodes. We show that existing Western-centric "global" sanctions datasets under-count cases of Chinese sanctions. We believe our data can enable exciting new comparative analysis into the scope conditions for the relative efficacy of sanctions threats and imposition by non-Western senders. Subsequent research agendas on Russia TIES or India TIES could be developed using the framework we describe in this paper. We hope to collaborate with foreign policy scholars who specialize in other under-covered sanction senders to create expansions of TIES.

2 Literature Review

2.1 What is unique about Chinese sanctions?

Since 2010, a rising number of scholars and analysts of Chinese foreign policy have linked China's use of economic sanctions and a more assertive Chinese foreign policy (Reilly, 2012; Mastro, 2014; Lee, 2014; Chen & Garcia, 2016; Chang Liao, 2018; Lin, 2019; Zhang, 2019; Lim & Ferguson, 2021; Yoder, 2020; Poh, 2021; Yu, 2021). This literature is concerned primarily with the coercive potential of growing Chinese economic power to serve more ambitious foreign policy goals. It remains largely descriptive, using expert interviews and case studies to understand Chinese motivations and target responses.

No comparative analysis of Chinese economic sanctions compared to global benchmarks has yet been attempted. However, the growing China sanctions literature points to a few distinguishing characteristics of Chinese sanctions. China's use of economic coercion has been variously described as "vague, selective, and informal" (Reilly, 2012; Chen & Garcia, 2016; Lim & Ferguson, 2021) to cautious (Zhang, 2019) and inconsistent (Poh, 2021). In the parlance of the general sanctions literature, China rarely explicitly threatens sanctions,

[5] https://github.com/Trade-War-Lab/China-TIES

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opting instead for ambiguity and plausible deniability. One of the few cases of explicit unilateral Chinese sanctions were against Australia in 2020 [6]. This stands in sharp contrast to the sanctioning practice of the United States and European Union which threaten sanctions with clear demands. Until 2020, China did not have any administrative laws on the books dealing with economic sanctions. Since the passage of the Provisions of the Unreliable Entity List (PUEL) in September 2020 and the Anti-Foreign Sanctions Law (AFSL) in June 2021, a rudimentary framework to counteract foreign economic sanctions has begun to emerge with the Ministry of Commerce of China (MOFCOM) as the lead enforcement agency. [7] For nearly the entire period of coverage of the CES dataset (1949-2020), these laws did not exist and China did not have a coherent legal framework for the administration of sanctions. China did not have an administrative equivalent to the U.S. State Department Office of Economic Sanctions Policy and Implementation or the U.S. Treasury Office of Foreign Assets Control (OFAC) to administer sanctions.

China's reticence in threatening sanctions also is puzzling given the finding in the sanctions literature about the threats being more successful than imposition (Drezner, 2003; Lacy & Niou, 2004; Bapat *et al.*, 2013). Poh (2021) argues that China shied away from explicit sanctions because its leaders have historically advocated against sanctions and care about their credibility and international status, and are thus constrained from exercising its economic leverage. While the book is carefully researched, this explanation is not terribly convincing given how little Chinese leaders seem to be constrained by their previous rhetoric or concerns over international status when it comes to other issues such as human rights in Xinjiang or the status of Hong Kong.

A more plausible explanation might be China's authoritarian politics. Threats may be more effective than imposition for a democratic sender such as the United States because domestic audience costs render their threats more credible (Lacy & Niou, 2004; Whang *et al.*, 2013). China, lacking a democratic electorate to placate domestically, may prefer to make its sanctions threats in private so that it has the plausible deniability if it backs down. There are two flaws with this explanation. First, we would expect at least some of the private threats to be made public by target states seeking international support against

[6]In November 2020, the Chinese Embassy in Canberra issued a list of "14 grievances" that Australia was expected to correct to return to a normal relationship after placing export restrictions on a number of Australian products. It is noteworthy that this list was publicly issued after the imposition of trade sanctions rather than threatened

[7]Since the adoption of the AFSL in 2021, China has officially sanctioned two U.S. defense companies, Northrop Grumman and Lockheed Martin, for Taiwan arms sales in 2022. Future data collection on Chinese sanctions behavior before and after the new legal framework would be a fruitful area of future research.

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Chinese coercion, particularly after the sanctions are imposed. Second, a robust literature suggests that Chinese leaders face audience costs (Weiss, 2013; Quek & Johnston, 2017; Weiss & Dafoe, 2019; Li & Chen, 2021) and can manipulate them for advantage. The evidence in the case of sanctions seems to be the opposite where the government is consistently less hawkish on disrupting economic linkages than its nationalist public. In fact, Chinese sanctions may serve a performative function, as a low-cost way of displaying strong leadership during international crises as Whang (2011) found to be the case in the United States. Imposing limited and ineffective sanctions impositions may be more useful to the leader than broad and effective sanctions threats that would be costly to impose and costlier to back down from.

The most persuasive explanation for China's sanctioning behavior is offered by Ketian Zhang's "cost-balancing theory." (Zhang, 2019) In the context of disputes related to the South China Sea (SCS), Zhang (2019) draws on elite interviews to argue that China sought to establish a 'reputation for resolve' (138)–threats, initiations of coercion, and economic sanctions are therefore a mechanism of signaling first-and-foremost. These decisions on coercion stem specifically from high-level elite decision-making and not other potential constraining factors: notably, she identifies that interviewees see the Politburo Standing Committee as the key body guiding coercive decision-making (155). Chinese sanctions were heavily guided by how leaders perceived the economic and geopolitical 'costs' of coercion and their reputational benefits. Extending her logic of "kill the chicken to scare the monkey" (*shajijinghou*) beyond the SCS, Chinese economic sanctions can be understood as a means to signal resolve when economic costs are relatively low or when the cost of military coercion is relatively high.

2.2 Overreacting to Chinese Economic Coercion: Review of the Chinese Foreign Policy Literature

How worried should scholars and policymakers be about Chinese economic sanctions? The Biden administration has made standing up to China's economic coercion a central message in its calls on friends and partners to 'de-risk' from China. Many scholars also link recent episodes of Chinese sanctions to a more assertive Chinese foreign policy. However, most of these studies exemplify what Johnston (2013) finds problematic about the "new assertiveness meme" in Chinese foreign policy – selecting on the dependent variable. That is, they seem to prove that Chinese foreign policy is becoming more assertive by only looking at cases of

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Chinese sanctions that support this conclusion. Scholars on both sides of the assertiveness debate tend to select sanctions (or non-sanctions) cases that accord with their conclusion.

Despite its normative reservations and inconsistent formal foundation for engaging in unilateral sanctions (Reilly, 2012; Yu, 2021), China has engaged in several high-profile episodes of economic coercion over the past decade. [8] Scholars have linked these Chinese sanctions to growing a more assertive Chinese foreign policy and its willingness to use economic leverage to defend its 'core national interests' (Reilly, 2012; Chang Liao, 2018; Yoder, 2020). Yet individual case studies that focus only on high-profile examples of Chinese sanctions may not represent the true variation as well as cross-national analysis using time series data. Additionally, there is a surprising amount of disagreement about whether sanctions episodes widely reported in the media such as the 'banana ban' against the Philippines (Poh, 2017) and the rare earths 'embargo' against Japan (King & Armstrong, 2013; Evenett & Fritz, 2023) were actually acts of economic coercion.

This uncertainty is inevitable due to the informal nature of Chinese sanctions and poses a challenge for systematic data collection. However, the lack of a common definition of what counts as a sanction also hinders knowledge accumulation in this literature. Poh (2021) argues that there were "no signs of formal Chinese sanctions before 2018" (16). She concludes that the recent rise in a willingness to engage in unilateral sanctions largely stemmed from a progressive and gradual lowering in the threshold of 'prior rhetorical restraint' related to China's past statements criticizing the use of sanctions. But this ignores China's United Nations Security Council (UNSC) sanctions voting, (Wuthnow, 2013) as well as its formal trade actions against the United States in the 1990s and 2000s (Zeng, 2004).

The focus on assertiveness in the Chinese Foreign Policy literature neglects the question of sanctions effectiveness preoccupying the mainstream sanctions literature. The global average rate of success of economic sanctions is about 30% and we find China's economic sanctions succeed at comparable or lower rates depending on the way success is measured. China has an increasing capacity for economic sanctions as it grows economically but often fails to coerce weaker adversaries such as South Korea and Australia to adjust policies. China may be suffering from what Sechser (2010) calls "Goliath's curse" where powerful states fail to coerce weaker adversaries because the sender underestimates the reputation costs to the target of giving in to a threat made by a stronger adversary. Scholars of Chinese foreign policy should devote more efforts to understanding the determinants of sanctions

[8] Lim & Ferguson (2021) describe China's informal sanctions in response the South Korean THAAD deployment in 2017. Ferguson *et al.* (2023) examine Chinese restrictions on trade with Australia in 2020.

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effectiveness and the possibility that growing Chinese economic power may hinder sanctions success.

The literature on Chinese economic coercion could benefit from a comparative analysis of the frequency and efficacy of Chinese sanctions. However, when it comes to economic sanctions, no time series data exist to compare China's use of this coercive instrument historically.

2.3 Undercounting Chinese Sanctions: Review of the Sanctions Literature

An enduring puzzle for the sanctions literature is why they remain popular instruments of foreign policy despite their seemingly low rates of success. (Hufbauer *et al.*, 1990) found that only one-third of sanctions episodes between 1914-1990 resulted in success. (Pape, 1997) infamously argued that sanctions success is as low as 5 percent due to the strength of modern states to resist them. Scholars have since pointed out that the selection process behind which sanctions are observed may be preventing us from appropriately evaluating the level and determinants of sanctions success (Drezner, 2003; Lacy & Niou, 2004; Bapat *et al.*, 2013). The idea is that sanctions do not need to be imposed in cases where they would induce targets to alter their behavior preemptively. Targets can anticipate costs when sanctions are threatened and change their policies before sanction impositions actually occur. As a result, the cases where sanctions are observed may be biased towards the hard targets that do not relent even when faced with the prospect of sanctions.

A major contribution that the TIES data set makes is to amass data not only on post-selection sanctions episodes observed but also pre-selection sanctions threatened (Morgan *et al.*, 2009; Bapat *et al.*, 2013). However, subsequent empirical analysis using the new threats data still does not increase sanctions success rates greater than half the time (Morgan *et al.*, 2014). Additionally, because senders in the TIES data are overwhelmingly democracies, much less is known about the relative effectiveness of threats and impositions by autocratic senders compared to the body of research on autocracies as targets (Peksen, 2019; Grauvogel & Von Soest, 2014; Peksen & Drury, 2010; Allen, 2008).

Political Scientists and economists have made important advances in our theoretical and empirical understanding of the causes and effects of economic sanctions as well as of their effectiveness and success. Advances in theoretical understanding have been guided by empirical findings, which are, in turn, made possible by the availability of reliable data. The

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TIES data set has made possible significant advancements in the literature but its coverage stops in 2005. Since then, a growing number of international actors from the European Union and African Union to China and Russia have been increasingly active in economic coercion. Weber & Schneider (2022) makes an important contribution with the EUSANCT dataset, which covers all threatened and imposed sanctions by the EU, UN, and US from 1989-2015. However, this updated data set does not include China or Russia cases because the authors worried that information about their use of economic coercion would not be consistently reported in English language news (Weber & Schneider, 2022).

The mainstream sanctions literature has thus suffered from a Western-centric bias due to the lack of high-quality comparative data on authoritarian sanctions. The majority of cases in existing cross-national analysis are driven by the United States and the European Union and thus general findings about the efficacy of threats over imposition or considerations about domestic audience costs may not be true of all sanctions but rather be a function of regime type and case selection. The study of informal sanctions threats by authoritarian regimes promises to contribute a more nuanced theoretical understanding to the strategic logic of economic sanctions. By drawing on the growing qualitative research on Chinese economic coercion from area experts, the CES data set fills in this gap and enables the emergence of an authoritarian sanctions literature that engages in dialogue, based on comparable data and methods, with the US and EU-dominated mainstream sanctions literature.

3 The Data

3.1 What counts as a sanction?

We follow Morgan *et al.* (2014) in defining economic sanctions as threats or actions that one or more states take to limit or end their economic relations with a target entity in an effort to persuade that country to change its policies. Economic sanctions can take the form of embargoes, blockades, import restrictions, export restrictions, asset freezes, termination of foreign aid, travel bans, or the suspension of economic agreements. We see economic coercion as a subset of economic sanctions and economic sanctions as a subset of economic statecraft (Baldwin, 2020). All economic coercion involves what Baldwin calls negative sanctions, that is they deprive the target of something of economic value in order to influence behavior, but not all economic sanctions are coercive. Some types of economic sanctions, such as export controls on dual-use technology, are designed for denial or containment while others, like

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travel bans on leaders, serve a symbolic or deterrent purpose.

We recognize that some scholars (Hufbauer *et al.*, 1990; Felbermayr *et al.*, 2020) believe that trade sanctions are fundamentally different from sanctions imposed for other "political" issues and that they should not be analyzed together. While it can be argued that tariffs are primarily economic or domestic rather than political or international matters, the distinction seems ridiculous in the case of the U.S.-China Trade War where one would be hard-pressed to argue that the Trump administration's use of Section 301 tariffs is non-political or non-international. We thus follow Morgan *et al.* (2014) in opting for inclusivity with the knowledge that any user can easily exclude trade sanctions from the data set. We do not include every case of anti-dumping (AD) or countervailing duties (CVD) involving China in our dataset [9] because most of these routine trade actions are motivated by the domestic politics of protectionism and receive scant media coverage (which affects case selection into TIES). However, we do include the four lists of section 301 tariffs that the Trump administration imposed on China in 2018-2019 as well as the four lists of Chinese retaliatory tariffs as eight distinct episodes of economic sanctions (issue: trade practices, type: import restrictions). This follows the precedent set by TIES v4, which included three rounds of disputes between the US and China in the 1990s over US threats to revoke China's most-favored nation (MFN) status over human rights concerns in the wake of the Tiananmen Square crackdown in 1989. Unilateral trade sanctions were imposed and retaliatory measures were taken by both the US and China during the 1990s. These were heavily politicized and contentious trade disputes that went beyond routine trade politics.

3.1.1 WTO Disputes

We follow the TIES codebook in deciding which cases of tariffs and counter-veiling duties are included as episodes. "By definition, a sanction must (a) involve one or more sender states and a target state and (b) be implemented by the sender in order to change the behavior of the target state. Actions taken by states that restrict economic relations with other countries for solely domestic economic policy reasons, therefore, do not qualify as sanctions" (Morgan *et al.*, 2014, p.543). These distinctions can seem arcane but are important politically. Companies can be found guilty of "dumping" if it exports a product at a lower price than the price it would normally charge domestically under trade law and governments can respond

[9] For context, Chad Bown documents 36 AD and 5 CVD cases imposed by China on the US and 103 AD and 55 CVD cases imposed by the US on China between 2001 and 2017. Perhaps we can include these in a future version.

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with anti-dumping duties (AD) to compel fair pricing. These measures are not generally considered sanctions because they do not aim to change state behavior. Countervailing duties (CVD) on the other hand are used when a foreign government provides enough subsidies and tax benefits for their manufacturers to sell their goods more cheaply than domestic manufacturers. These duties are meant to change state behavior and are often quite politicized in the case of China because they involve state-owned enterprises and industrial policy.

Complicating matters further is China's accession to the World Trade Organization (WTO) in 2001. Before WTO accession, AD and CVD involving China were essentially unilateral. [10] After WTO accession, AD/CVD trade disputes are subject to binding dispute settlement. As Morgan *et al.* (2014) notes the global incidence of sanctions in trade disputes increased substantially in the 1980s but decreased in the 2000s due likely to the adoption of the WTO dispute settlement mechanism reducing the need to use unilateral economic sanctions in trade disputes.

We consider the initiation of WTO cases by China against the target country to be a sanctions threat. This helps preserve the balance of similar trade dispute cases before and after WTO accession. We chose to include all cases filed by China and against China in the World Trade Organization (WTO) dispute settlement mechanism (DSM) as threats of economic sanctions because they are trying to change state behavior. For example, China filed a WTO case against US safeguards on solar panels in 2018 and the US filed a WTO case against Chinese retaliatory tariffs imposed in 2018. The WTO DSM is designed to encourage voluntary compliance with international trade law but failure to comply with a ruling by the WTO appellate body could legitimate retaliatory trade sanctions. We see these WTO cases as symbolic sanctions meant to use international law to deter further trade actions by states. China was keenly interested in joining the WTO precisely because it sought protection against the TIES episodes involving unilateral trade sanctions by the US it experienced in the 1990s (Zeng, 2004). We believed it would be misleading to include the cases of Chinese unilateral retaliations in the 1990s but not include attempts to settle similar disputes through the multilateral WTO framework after 2001.

We understand that this may be seen as a point of departure from TIES and made it easy for users to exclude these new cases. However, we believe that further debate is needed to determine how best to distinguish episodes of "ordinary" trade disputes such as those

[10] China did not have a legal apparatus to investigate antidumping until the promulgation of the Anti-dumping and Anti-subsidy Regulations in 1997 but have since become on the most active users of trade remedy measures.

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between the US and Canada from "extraordinary" trade wars that the US and China are currently entangled in, particularly with the US blocking the appointment of judges to the WTO's Appellate Body since 2018 to shield itself from trade retaliations. [11]

3.1.2 UNSC Sanctions

We follow the convention of TIES and EUSANCT and include cases where China participated in multilateral sanctions. China is a permanent member of the UN Security Council (UNSC) and has voted yes on many resolutions imposing sanctions on states. However, we were surprised to find that China was rarely listed as a sender in TIES or EUSANCT. Although China is not the primary sender for most of these sanctions, it is only listed as a secondary or tertiary sender once in EUSANCT and four times in TIES. This is somewhat puzzling because, while China is arguably not the primary sender in many of these sanctions, it is inconsistent to list France or the United Kingdom as a secondary or tertiary sender and not China or Russia.

Moreover, China's voting record in the UNSC varies over time due to international politics. China voted with the rest of the P5 members the majority of the time on UNSC sanctions resolutions but it has abstained or vetoed sanctions measures in the past. We cross-reference GSDB data on UNSC sanctions against China's voting record as well as research by Wuthnow (2013) and others. This allowed us to identify 56 UNSC sanctions resolutions while the PRC had the opportunity to vote. It voted yes in 47 episodes and abstained from voting in 9 cases. [12] We code each yes vote as a threat and imposition of economic sanctions. We also note that scholars have noted when China has threatened or used its veto as it did, along with Russia, vetoed new sanctions on North Korea in 2022. However, there was not a good way to systematically include these observations of veto threats in this data set.

3.1.3 What does not count?

Our decision to include WTO disputes and UNSC sanctions are both motivated by the desire to be consistent with precedents set by TIES and GSDB. Since these datasets included

[11] In a global context where trade policy is becoming more contentious and framed in terms of national security, we believe the sanctions literature could engage more deeply with the trade politics literature to more clearly determine the demarcation of a sanction and a trade remedy.

[12] China abstained from UNSC sanctions resolutions against Cambodia (1992), Libya (1993), Bosnia (1991), Sudan (1996), Iraq (1997), Eritrea (2011), DPRK (2006), and South Sudan (2018, 2019)

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some trade disputes and some UNSC sanctions episodes involving China but excluded other similar episodes, we decided to include all similar phenomena that we can link to China. We recognize that this inclusive definition of sanctions introduces heterogeneity into the dataset and that the political drivers of WTO and UNSC disputes may at times differ from those of unilateral sanctions. However, we believe that sanctions episodes should not be excluded at random (as was the case with TIES and GSDB) and included dummy variables to allow users of our dataset to filter out for both of these two categories.

Based on our definition, a sanction must be sent by one or more governments but the target can be another government (as it is in the majority of cases) or a non-state actor (as it is the case with some UNSC sanctions as well as some unilateral sanctions cases targeting foreign businesses). We recognize that this is a slight departure from TIES, which requires both sender and target to be states. But, in the post-9/11 world of smart or targeted sanctions as well as the literature on Chinese economic coercion, we believe the inclusion of non-state actors is more sensible. For example, we do consider punitive actions towards foreign companies to be economic sanctions such as when state-run television suspended the National Basketball Association (NBA) broadcast rights in China after a Houston Rockets executive expressed support for pro-democracy demonstrators in Hong Kong in 2019. In these cases, we code the target state for these sanctions as the location of the headquarters of the company, so the United States for the NBA. Although they are not aimed at changing the behavior of a target state, and thus do not fit neatly into the TIES definition, they are undoubtedly political and coercive. Many smart sanctions involving other countries also target corporations or individuals, such as seizing the yachts of Russian oligarchs, with varying degrees of implications for changing target state policy.

We do not consider consumer boycotts to be a form of economic sanctions unless they have national government backing. [13] These difficult coding decisions reflect the difficulty of distinguishing political versus economic coercion involving China. The political-economic (or high- vs low- politics) distinction relies on states viewing economic relationships as contained, insular, and discrete from other relationships–something that is probably not true in many places but is definitely not true of the party-state in China. This disentangling exercise

[13]This may be controversial in light of work by Jessica Weiss on the strategic nature of anti-foreign protests and boycotts in China and we may expand the data later to include these episodes. Additionally, other researchers on Chinese coercive diplomacy, such as an Australian Strategic Policy Institute (ASPI) report, do not distinguish between state-issued sanctions and calls for boycotts in state-owned media, including tabloids and op-eds. The inclusion of these boycott cases would dramatically increase the number of sanctions threats but they rarely materialize and are not intended as credible signals of coercive intent.

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is especially difficult in the context of the US-China relationship since the outbreak of the Trade War in 2018 as both governments increasingly frame economic competition in national security terms (Liu *et al.*, 2022). Thus, we generally err toward inclusion when there is ambiguity about whether or not the sanction attempts to change the behavior of the target state.

3.2 Data Collection Process

The data collection proceeded in five stages. First, and emulating the original TIES process, cases were selected for candidacy through a time-limited (1949-2020) key-word search of NexisUni, New York Times Index and London Times Index.[14] Second, the research assistants were then tasked with researching the cases using secondary literature [15] and assembling short written summaries of the episodes identified, including key identifying features such as the start date, target, and issues of the case. Third, after assembling a list of candidate cases, the review team was tasked with (1) reconciling the candidate cases with the original TIES cases (1949-2005) and (2) identifying 'new' or 'missed' candidate cases. We exhaustively cross-referenced all episodes with the other prominent sanctions data sets such as the GSDB, PIIE, TSC, and EUSANCT. We include the case IDs for those cases that match cases from TIES, GSDB, and PIIE.

After this reconciliation, the research assistants were tasked with writing an episode narrative following a standardized template (see Appendix A) and citing secondary sources for key information for the set of CEC data set episodes. These written episode summaries were then used as the baseline or ground truth for our coding by the authors based on the codebook from TIES v4. Finally, two other graduate research assistants who did not write the narratives or participate in the coding but were trained in TIES v4 were tasked with checking the coding and the narratives. Mistakes and inconsistencies identified during this quality control process were then reconciled by the authors.

A sanctions episode begins either by threat or imposition. A threat can be rhetorical and come from an agency or government head capable of carrying out a threat (Heads of State, Heads of Government, Ministers of State or Treasury, etc.) or can be initiated through legislation, wherein the legislation eventually passes and becomes actionable.[16]. Sanctions

[14]The keyword search included the following terms: "China, sanction, restrict, tariff, threat, embargo, and consequence.

[15]Useful sources included the Congressional Research Service (CRS), the US Department of Commerce, reports by think tanks such as CNAS and ASPI, and books by Poh (2021); Reilly (2012)

[16]The legislation must pass and become actionable for one key reason: hundreds of China-related pieces

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Figure 1: Onset of CES Sanctions Cases



might have multiple senders, as in the case of multilateral UNSC sanctions, but can only have a single target for case listing.

Sanctions episodes end when one of the following conditions are met: (1) a sender(s) indicates a lack of interest in implementing a threatened action; (2) a sender announces an end (or fails to reinstate) an economic coercion package; or (3) the sender and target reach a mutually understood 'end' to the episode. Ongoing sanctions episodes are left with the final outcome missing.

The result of this effort is the Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) dataset which contains 131 episodes where China is the sender and 88 episodes where it is the target from 1949 to 2020. The data set is fully compatible with TIES and includes all original TIES variables, but we also add new China-specific variables such as who the paramount leader is, measures for assertiveness, and an alternative measure for severity. We assign new case names and descriptions to each verified case but also retain the original TIES caseID for overlapping cases. Each sanctions episode is documented with a narrative that allows users to verify, dispute, or alter our coding as they see fit. Since many of the important categorical variables such as outcome and cost are somewhat subjective, we believe this transparency is important. Figure 1 plots the annual onset of sanctions where China is a sender and confirms an uptick in Chinese sanctions activity since 2018.

of legislation are passed yearly and most are empty threats and do not result in any policy change

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3.2.1 Improving on TIES

We believe our use of narratives as ground truth to code cases, provide transparency, and account for ambiguity is the biggest improvement of CES over TIES. However, we also note two significant coding improvements between our dataset and the original TIES codebook: (1) we conceptualize success as an ordinal measure reflecting the bargaining outcome and (2) we added a 'verifiable' variable to deal with ambiguous or unverifiable sanctions cases.

Measuring Success: Success is one of the most important variables in the sanctions literature and a hotly contested metric. TIES, GSDB, and EUSANCT all measure success differently. The original TIES did not include a 'success' variable, but instead used two strategies to identify what success might look like: (1) TIES used a nominal categorical scale to code 'final outcomes' relative to the point of initiation and the capitulation of the sender and/or target; (2) The original TIES used a grouped ordinal categorical variable (1-10), to categorize the 'final outcome' of sanctions episodes, relative to the sender and target.

The CES *settlementnature* variables build upon the original TIES effort to use an ordinal 1-10 scale to measure how well senders and targets fared at the end of (or during ongoing) episodes. However, we see the outcome of each episode as the consequence of a bargaining interaction, meaning each state gains at the expense of the other. A 'neutral' or stalemate outcome between the two states would thus begin with a 5-5 coding for both the *settlementnaturesender* and *settlementnaturetarget* variables. This is modified by the result of the bargaining interaction. The higher the discrepancy between these two variables, the more favorable the result of the episode was for the state with the higher proportion out of ten. Mirroring the effort of the original TIES, we task coders to conceptualize factors such as (1) the meeting of overall goals; and (2) how the post-episode environment compared to the status quo ante to give a score from 1-10 to each side.

However, departing from the original TIES, if a sender/target receives a score out of ten (ex. 7 for sender), the opposing state must receive the residual score (ex. 3 for target). We feel that this approach was better at capturing how sanctions changed the status quo in the bilateral relationship with China. The TIES coding depends heavily on whether the target state takes observable actions to meet sender state demands, making it exceedingly difficult to assess acquiescence or capitulation in informal sanctions cases that did not involve clear demands. Our approach measures success in the context of the whole relationship rather than on acquiescence or capitulation on a particular policy.

Table 2 compares our measure of sanctions outcome for China (**ChinaOutcome**) against TIES (**FinalOutcome**) in the 14 cases where the two datasets have in common. The original

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Table 2: Comparison of Sanctions Outcome Variables: CES ChinaOutcome v. TIES FinalOutcome Measures

Final Outcome (TIES)	NA	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	Total
Failure	2	0	0	0	1	0	0	0	1	5	0	9
Success	0	1	0	0	0	3	1	2	0	0	3	10
												19
China Result (CES)												
Negative	0	0	0	0	0	1	0	0	0	0	0	1
Neutral	0	0	0	0	0	2	0	0	1	4	2	9
Positive	0	0	0	0	0	0	0	2	0	1	1	4
												14

TIES used a quasi-ordinal variable (ranging from 1-10), to categorize the 'final outcome' of sanctions episodes for the sender. The grouping of this variable was by stage: 1-5 are a measurement of capitulation of either the sender or target during the 'threat' stage;[17] while 6-10 are the same measurements during the 'imposition' stage. In Table 2, we collapse the TIES outcomes measures into 'success' if the target partially (1,6) or fully (2,7) acquiesces or makes a negotiated settlement (5,10). The TIES coding yields a high success rate (10/19) for China when negotiated settlements count as success. We were dissatisfied with this measure because it was often difficult to distinguish the ten categories in practice and because the scale was not ordinal.

Our alternative measure of **ChinaOutcome** conceives the outcome of the sanction as a bargain where we compare whether China is better or worse off on the issue triggering the sanction relative to the pre-sanction status quo. This coding of the outcome variable result better captures the fact that many negotiated settlements did not shift the status quo in the overall bilateral relationship with the target and that China's use of sanctions only occasionally made the target worse off and only once resulted in China being worse off [18].

An example that illustrates how the way we measure success in terms of the outcome of bargaining differs substantively from the way TIES coded success based on the degree of policy acquiescence can be seen in the China-USA Textile II case (ID: 199611710002). TIES would code the outcome for the sender as a 'success' because it resulted in a negotiated

[17]The variable is ordered as follows: (1) Partial acquiescence by the target; (2) complete acquiescence by the target; (3) capitulation by the sender; (4) stalemate; (5) negotiated settlement

[18]The four cases of successful PRC sanctions are: 1958 Embargo of Malaysian rubber (ID: 195811710820), 1961 Sino-Soviet Split (ID: 196106710365), 1967 Sanctions against Portuguese Macau (ID: 196701710235), and 1997 Economic threats against Denmark (ID: 199704710390). The one case of failure is: 1996 Backing down from import restrictions against the US(ID: 199611710002)

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settlement. However, we call this a failure because China threatened retaliatory sanctions against the US, never imposed them, and the US textile sanctions remained in place against China after the dispute. The "settlement" only resolved escalation and not the existing economic provocation.

Verified Cases: We add a new binary variable of *verified* to address concerns about whether or not certain implicit sanctions episodes occurred at all (Poh, 2017) and also cite these concerns directly in the narrative. Cases where Chinese state involvement is clear and well-documented such as participation in UNSC sanctions against North Korea are coded as 1 'verified' while ambiguous and debated cases are coded as 0. Of the 131 cases of sanctions initiated by China, we are confident 106 'verified' cases and the remaining 30 or so cases either because they are unverifiable or because the nature of the sanction threat or imposition was not explicit. Thus, a quarter of China as sender episodes is ambiguous in some way, much higher than the EUSANCT data set which relies on explicit threats and imposition of sanctions by US and EU governments to be sure, but a far cry from the claim that Chinese economic coercion cannot be studied systematically because they lack documentation.

It should be noted that we keep 5 unverifiable TIES episodes in the data for the sake of compatibility and because these constitute a significant portion of original TIES episodes involving China.[19]

3.2.2 China Specific Variables

Finally, we also add several China-specific variables that are important for identifying the dogs that did not bark in China's sanctions behavior. We know that China has had a consistent position on 'red line' issues such as opposing Taiwan arms sales and Dalai Lama visits. However, it has responded to these episodes with sanctions only some of the time such as in 1991 to protest French arms sales to Taiwan or in 2002 to punish Mongolia for hosting the Dalai Lama. At other times sanctions are threatened implicitly but not followed through such as against US arms sales to Taiwan in 2010. And yet other times, no threats of economic sanction were detected as in the numerous times the Dalai Lama visited the United States, United Kingdom, and Germany in the 2000s. Because much of the literature

[19]We tried to verify each episode in TIES based on the dates and target state, searching through newspaper archives as well as secondary sources. Cases flagged as unverifiable by one research assistant were always assigned to a second research assistant to independently verify. We also relaxed the dates to search for possible episodes in the adjacent years. Since TIES does not provide any documentation of cases, this is the best we can do to verify cases they include in the data set by retracing their methodology of identifying cases.

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on Chinese economic coercion focuses on the role of leaders in shaping sanctions policy, we also include a variable that reflects who is the paramount leader of China at the time of sanctions onset.

Taiwan: For the dyadic version of the data, we code all country years that a given China trade partner also sells weapons to Taiwan as '1' regardless of the weapon sale size and scope. The Stockholm International Peace Research Institute (SIPRI) 'Arms Transfers Database' documents all international arms transfers since 1950, and most recently updated in March 2021.[20] We count 160 episodes of Taiwan arms sales, the vast majority involving the United States, and China responded with a threat or imposition of economic sanctions in only 6 cases. We also code as '1' all sanctions episodes involving Taiwanese sovereignty such as those over Tsai Ing-wen's election (ID: 201601710713) or backlash against foreign support for Taiwan (ID: 201900710316).

Tibet: We catalog all official state visits made by the Dalai Lama from 1959-present. We use the official travel record of the Dalai Lama public website to code the variable. The binary variable is coded as '1' if the Dalai Lama made a state visit to the state/territory in a given year for the dyadic version of the data. India is always coded as '1' after 1959 because of the Dalai Lama's residence in Himachal Pradesh. We count 480 cases of Dalai Lama foreign visits in the data set, of which China responded with a threat or imposition of economic sanctions in 25 cases.

Human Rights: This variable picks up all the sanctions episodes that are issued in retaliation for foreign criticism of China's human rights record. Issues that triggered Chinese sanctions include criticizing Beijing for its repression of Uyghurs in Xinjiang, crackdown on protesters in Hong Kong, and awarding prizes to dissidents such as Liu Xiaobo. 11 of the sanctions cases included in our dataset are over human rights issues, notably 7 of these occurred in the past decade.

3.3 Descriptive Statistics

3.3.1 Targets

Our data shows that China has targeted 48 states with economic sanctions [21] with the United States being by far the most frequent target of both sanctions threats and impositions. The full list of sanctions targets is listed in Table 7 in Appendix A. Comparatively speaking,

[20] SEE: https://www.sipri.org/databases/armstransfers

[21] Sanctions against non-state actors such as a company are attributed to a target state

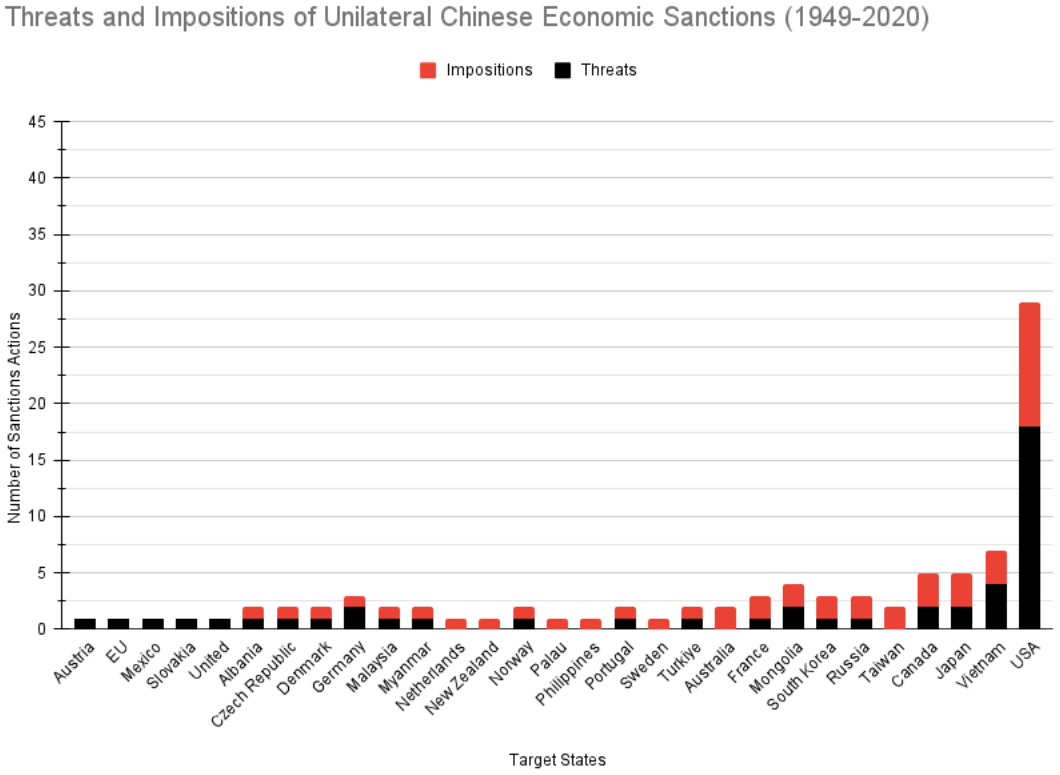
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China has sanctioned a comparable number of countries (43) as the European Union (41) but still far fewer than the United States (103) since the end of the Cold War.

The countries most targeted by multilateral sanctions overlap with frequent targets of US and EU sanctions, they consist mostly of African and Middle Eastern countries such as Liberia, Sierra Leon, and Iran. This is because China generally voted along with the rest of the P5 in sanctioning coup leaders and preventing nuclear proliferation.

The list of unilateral sanctions is more interesting as it is dominated by the United States (20 cases) followed by Vietnam (6 cases) and Japan (4 cases). Figure 2 shows the distribution of the targets of unilateral threats and impositions by China.

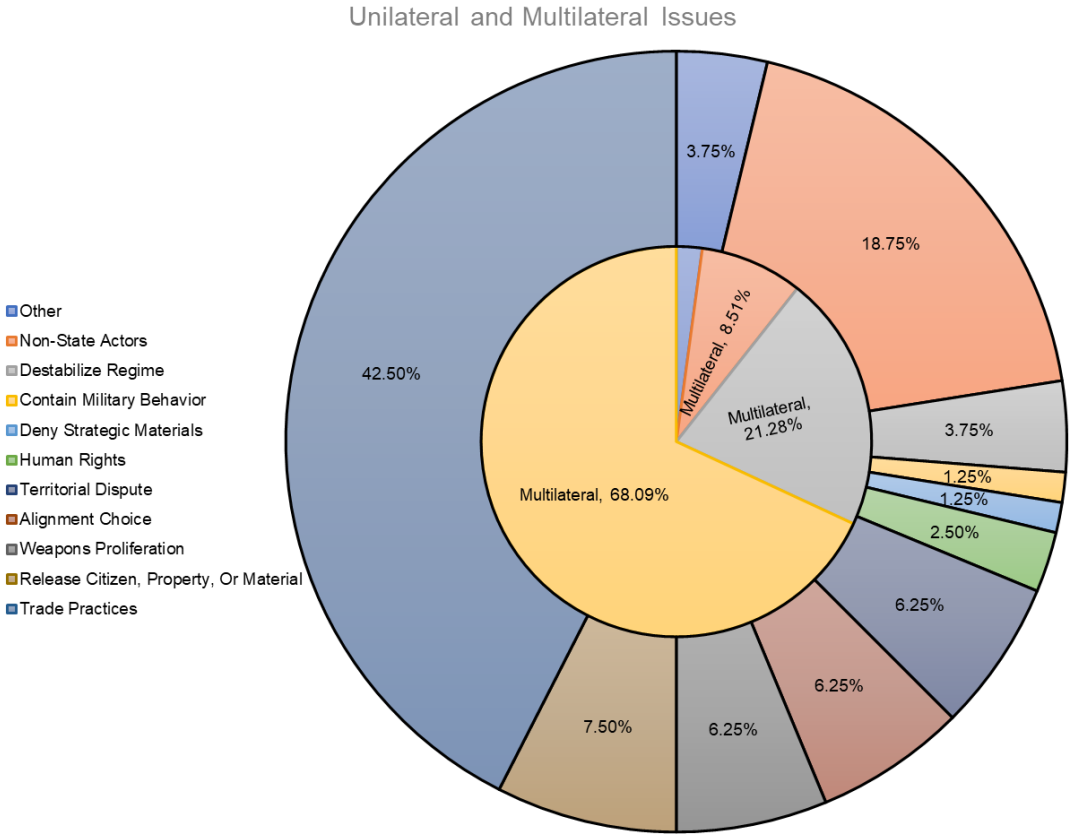
Figure 2: Targets of Unilateral Chinese Sanctions



3.3.2 Issues

Figure 3 compares the issues of multilateral (inner circle) sanctions against unilateral (outer circle) sanctions.

Figure 3: Unilateral and Multilateral Issues



The majority (68%) of China's multilateral sanctions are UNSC sanctions designed to contain military behavior and another (21%) are to destabilize regimes (usually after a coup).

By contrast, the plurality of China's unilateral sanctions (42%) are due to trade practices, most of these in the tit-for-tat escalation of the US-China Trade War. The second most common issue is support for non-state actors (19%), where China sanctions states that honor individuals Beijing considers dissidents or separatists such as the Dalai Lama. Other issues such as the release of citizens (such as Huawei CFO Meng Wanzhou), weapons proliferation (Taiwan arms sales), alignment choice, and territorial disputes each constitute between 6-7% of China's unilateral sanctions.

3.3.3 Types

Import restrictions are the most common type of sanctions imposed by China, which is consistent with the global average in TIES. China is much less likely to sanction using economic embargoes and termination of aid than the global average. It is more likely to resort to travel bans, suspension of economic agreements, and other (mostly detentions of foreign nationals) than TIES senders globally.

Table 3: Summary of Imposed Measures by Type

Sanction Type	All (TIES)	(%)	China (CES)	(%)
Economic Embargo	137	13	4	6
Import Restriction	452	44	32	46
Export Restriction	58	6	3	4
Blockade	37	4	1	1
Asset Freeze	34	3	4	6
Terminate Aid	193	19	4	6
Travel Ban	49	5	7	10
Suspension of Economic Agreement	55	5	8	11
Other	5	1	7	10
Total	1020	100	70	100

3.3.4 Costs

The original TIES codebook opted to use several categorical variables (1-3) to capture 'costs' to the sender and target as well as continuous dollar value 'anticipated' and 'real' costs.

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'Minor' episodes indicated the existence of no evidence of economic harm; 'major' episodes are characterized by "measures of inflation (over 5%) or unemployment rate and drastic reductions in trade"; and 'major' episodes signaled the destruction of the overall economy. However, these categories made it very challenging to consistently assess costs across cases. If the coder cannot identify a 'real cost' for the episode (an inflation figure, an unemployment rate, or real monetary reductions in trade) then the cost variable is often missing. As a result, 'anticipated target costs' were missing in 86% (1209/1412) of cases and 'real target costs' were missing in 92% (1298/1412) of the cases in TIES v4. The China cases specifically did not have any severity or 'costs' coding after 1992 in the original TIES, with only four historical cases with 'anticipated costs' coded and two historical cases with 'real target costs' coded. The variables to the dollar amount of costs are even more scarce and impossible to verify or adjust for inflation.

Our coders had great difficulty measuring the dollar value of sender and target costs based on publicly available information using the TIES approach. We decided to slightly modify TIES to focus instead on the severity of economic disruption during sanctions episodes. Variables received a 1 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) minor[22], 2 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) significant [23], and 3 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) catastrophic[24]. We believe our coding of these outcome variables are roughly comparable to the original categorical TIES measures but more easily verifiable from available secondary sources. In our view, tying sanctions to inflation or economic growth in the target state requires rigorous econometric analysis and few sanctions meet the catastrophic threshold set by TIES because most economic activity is domestic. Our coding strategy focuses on the impact of the sanction on the dyadic economic relationship and how severe the damage is to that relationship–allowing for a better distribution of the categorical variable. Table 4 compares our categorical variable for sender costs

3.3.5 Outcomes

As discussed above, we measure the success of each sanctions episode in two ways. Chinese sanctions succeed 42% of the time according to TIES coding rules and result in a positive outcome for China 36% of the time. Somewhat less successful compared to 41% of unilateral

[22]'minor' damage is denoted as little or no impact on bilateral economic ties

[23]'significant' damage is denoted as disruptive, or inflicting notable damage to the economy

[24]'catastrophic' damage is denoted as intended to or halt most economic activity or ending the trading relationship between two countries

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Table 4: Anticipated and Actual Costs in CES (China) v. TIES (Global)

Costs	Anticipated	(%)	Total	Actual	(%)	Total
TIES Costs (Sender)						
Minor	678	79		646	82	
Major	158	18		111	14	
Severe	27	3		32	4	
			863/1412			789/1412
CES Costs (China)						
Minor	74	56		82	63	
Major	39	30		32	24	
Severe	13	10		12	9	
Unverifiable	5	4		5	4	
			131			131

US sanctions and 66% of EU sanctions (Weber & Schneider, 2022). The modal outcome for China's sanctions is stalemate following sanctions imposition, reflected in our coding of neutral China results.

Table 5: CES: TIES Outcome v. CES Result

Outcome (TIES)	Count	(%)	Total
Failure	76	58	
Success	55	42	
			131
China Result (CES)			
Negative	28	21	
Neutral	56	43	
Positive	47	36	
			131

4 Analyzing Chinese Sanctions

Our data reveal that, since the end of the Cold War, China has become the third largest sender of sanctions in the world, after the United States and the European Union. China's sanctions appear on average no more successful than those other the global average. However, it must be noted that China has become much more capable economically over time and it is hard to disentangle whether the growing number of Chinese sanctions simply reflect growing capabilities or a more coercive foreign policy. Our results show a more nuanced

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pattern of initiation in line with the findings by Poh (2021) where China's use of sanctions is more constrained than generally acknowledged, not only in scope but also in frequency. Additionally, aspects of China's sanctions behavior and outcomes go against the grain of some well-established empirical regularities found in the "global" sanctions literature.

First, China imposes a large number of sanctions without first issuing a threat, a behavior that is puzzling because the literature finds that threats are more effective (and less costly) than impositions. Table 6 shows that over 15% of all China's sanctions are imposed without a preceding threat (these account for over one-third of unilateral sanctions). This is puzzling because the sanctions literature finds that threats are more effective (and less costly) than impositions. And indeed China's own sanctions threats are more successful than its sanctions impositions.

Table 6: Distribution of Sanction Threats, Imposed Sanctions by Sender

Sender	EU	USA	China
Total Number of Sanction Threats	68	200	111
Non-Imposed Threats	22	94	24
Imposed Threats	46	106	87
Total Impositions without Threats	0	0	20

Second, China participated as a sender of multilateral sanctions more than the previous literature gave credit for. The Chinese economic coercion literature has not engaged sufficiently with the literature on China's involvement in the UN or the literature on trade wars. This fact has escaped the mainstream sanctions literature which has systematically under-counted China's involvement in UNSC sanctions.

China's involvement in UNSC sanctions and WTO disputes is complicated by the fact that China has a growing stake in global governance but its national interests sometimes pull it in different directions than the US and EU. By contrast, US and EU foreign policy generally align with the goals of multilateral UNSC sanctions, such that they often unilaterally impose sanctions, against Iran or North Korea for example, alongside multilateral efforts. Thus, there is much less overlap in the targets of unilateral sanctions and multilateral sanctions by China compared to the US and EU. China is not unique in this, Russia's voting record in the UNSC is similarly complicated by its divergent interests from the liberal international order. The sanctions literature finds that multilateral sanctions are more likely to succeed than unilateral sanctions. Future research might profitably explore whether this

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empirical regularity holds for China and Russia and examine the cases where they abstain from multilateral sanctions votes.

Third, while the number of sanctions unilaterally initiated by China has risen sharply since 2018, Chinese sanctions have become less successful over time, and this is especially true during Xi's tenure. Less than one in six of China's sanctions under Xi Jinping has succeeded in achieving above a 'negotiated settlement'. We find that they are no more effective at getting the target state to meet the sender's demands than those where the United States or European Union is the sender. The irony of course is that China's use of economic sanctions has become much more institutionalized since 2018. Our data suggests that Chinese policymakers are still learning how to effectively wield targeted sanctions in coercive diplomacy. Thus far, they have either not been very good at picking their battles, or, more plausibly, have used new sanctions instruments such as the entities listing or export controls for signaling or deterrence rather than coercion. It is noteworthy that the U.S. sanctions literature grew out of a frustration over why high-profile sanctions cases "do not work" and much of the subsequent research has dealt with the question of effectiveness. Our dataset offers a way for scholars to systematically assess the success or effectiveness of Chinese sanctions in a similar way.

5 Conclusion

This paper aims to provide the most complete record of China's economic sanctions from 1949 to 2020. The Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) dataset is not only fully compatible with TIES but includes detailed case narratives that serve as the ground truth for verifying and accumulating knowledge in a growing area of interest for scholars and policymakers. Over 70% of cases were not captured by the existing TIES data or by the Global Sanctions Data Base (GSDB).

We hope that the dataset will enrich both the field's understanding of economic sanctions generally but also of Chinese foreign policy by allowing for the comparative analysis of China's sanctions behavior. Since the end of the Cold War, China has become the third largest sender of sanctions in the world, after the United States and the European Union, yet it is neglected in existing data sets. By drawing on the growing qualitative research on Chinese economic coercion from area experts, the CES fills in this gap and enables the emergence of an authoritarian sanctions literature that engages in dialogue, based on comparable data and methods, with the US and EU-dominated mainstream sanctions literature. Our

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findings suggest that Chinese sanctions succeed at comparable or lower rates than those by the US and EU. We hope that this data will enable scholars to explore research questions such as when and why Chinese economic sanctions are effective or successful.

We will maintain a web-based depository where one can download the updated China episodes in both a TIES-compatible format and a stand-alone format with these new variables we added. We also hope that our framework for collecting new data about non-Western economic sanctions transparently through the narratives-based approach will enable collaboration to create similarly inter-operable sanctions data for countries like Russia and India, which are likely also underrepresented in existing datasets. We believe the narratives-based approach [25] that we describe in this paper combines the best of qualitative research and quantitative research methods to foster the accumulation of knowledge about China's economic sanctions. Just as quantitative scholars should be encouraged to take narratives more seriously as the foundations of their data, qualitative scholars should encouraged to systematize their case study observations. We hope that our approach can set an example for how scholars from different methodological traditions can work together to advance knowledge on issues of common interest.

[25]We are indebted to pioneers of the narratives-based approach to quantitative dataset construction such as Brecher & Wilkenfeld; Gibler

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A Appendix

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Figure 4: Sample CES Narrative

CASE ID: 199108710220
China sanctioned France for its arm sales to Taiwan

On 27 September 1991, France announced its approval of the sale of 16 unarmed frigate hulls to Taiwan. China, on 28 September, expressed "strong dissatisfaction" over France's decision by summoning French Ambassador Claude Martin. France finally sold the six frigates to Taiwan for $2.8 billion in 1991, causing a freeze in diplomatic relations between Paris and Beijing.

On 18 November 1992, France signed the contract to sell Taiwan 60 Mirage fighter jets regardless of China's strong opposition and threats of "retaliatory measures'. China closed the French consulate in Guangzhou in December 1992. In January 1993, France officially confirmed the sale of 60 Mirage jet fighters to Taiwan and 1,500 missiles for $3.8 billion (Dawkins 1993). In March 1993, French companies in China reported that many contracts had been frozen and all negotiations for future business deals had stopped (Cohen 1994). In November 1993, the German government secured approximately $4 billion in new contracts in China, including for the Guangzhou subway project, from which French companies were excluded (Cohen 1994). Finally, in January 1994, China signed an agreement with France to end sanctions and restore friendly relations: 'In view of the concerns of the Chinese side, the French government has undertaken not to authorize any French enterprises to participate in the arming of Taiwan' (Cohen 1994, 11).

In April 2020, Taiwan would buy the Dagaie MK2 decoy launcher from a unit of French group DCI to upgrade the 25-year-old missile interference system of French-built Lafayette frigates.
On Tuesday (May 12) 2020, Beijing demanded that France cancel an arms deal with Taiwan and warns Paris that it could harm diplomatic relations between the two countries. The French foreign ministry on Wednesday (May 13) responded to China's complaint by first reiterating its adherence to the "one China policy." France dismissed Chinese warnings and said it was implementing existing deals with Taiwan and that China and other countries should focus on battling the coronavirus pandemic instead.

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Table 7: Sanctions by Target State

Target State	Threaten	Impose	UNSC	WTO
United States of America	30	18	0	12
European Union	5	3	0	4
Liberia	5	5	5	0
Sierra Leone	5	5	5	0
Vietnam	4	3	0	0
Canada	4	6	0	1
Angola	4	4	4	0
DR Congo	4	4	4	0
Cote D'Ivoire	4	4	4	0
Iran	4	4	4	0
Somalia	4	4	4	0
Afghanistan	3	3	3	0
Japan	3	4	0	1
Haiti	2	2	2	0
Iraq	2	2	2	0
Mongolia	2	2	0	0
Rwanda	2	2	2	0
Germany	2	1	0	0
Mexico	1	0	0	0
Slovakia	1	0	0	0
United Kingdom	1	0	0	0
Albania	1	1	0	0
Austria	1	1	0	0
Central African Republic	1	1	1	0
Czech Republic	1	1	0	0
Denmark	1	1	0	0
Eritrea	1	1	1	0
Ethiopia	1	1	1	0
France	1	2	0	0
Guinea-Bissau	1	1	1	0
North Korea	1	1	1	0
South Korea	1	2	0	1
Lebanon	1	1	1	0
Libya	1	1	1	0
Malaysia	1	1	0	0
Myanmar	1	1	1	0
Norway	1	1	0	0
Portugal	1	1	0	0
Russia	1	2	0	0
Turkey	1	1	0	0
Yugoslavia	1	1	1	0
Taiwan	0	2	0	0
Australia	0	2	0	0
Netherlands	0	1	0	0
New Zealand	0	1	0	0
Palau	0	1	0	0
Philippines	0	1	0	0
Sweden	0	1	0	0
Total	112	108	48	19

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2.01E+10	https://docs	Dalai Lama	0		0		0	
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2.02E+11	https://docs	Dalai Lama	0		0		0	
2.02E+11	https://docs	Embargo o	0	.	0		0	
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339	Albania	710		710	0		7	8
900	Australia	710		710	0		5	
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2	United Stat	710		710	0		7	
816	Vietnam, D	710		710	0		4	12
775	Myanmar	710		710	0		6	28
20	Canada	710		710	0		12	
20	Canada	710		710	0		6	19
390	Denmark	710		710	0	4400	4	8
740	Japan	710		710	0		9	7
640	Turkey (Ott	710		710	0		7	6
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317	Slovakia	710		710	0		10	17
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2	United Stat	710		710	0	0	11	9
816	Vietnam, D	710		710	0		4	
816	Vietnam, D	710		710	0		5	2
316	Czech Rep	710		710	0			
1653	EU	710		710	0		9	19
712	Mongolia	710		710	0		11	5
305	Austria	710		710	0		9	
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20	Canada	710		710	0		6	22
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20	Canada	710		710	0		4	29
816	Vietnam, D	710		710	0		7	22
220	France	710		710	0		8	
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210	Netherland	710		710	0			
920	New Zealar	710		710	0		2	
385	Norway	710		710	0		9	
986	Palau	710		710	0		11	
2	United Stat	710		710	0		6	29
255	Germany	710		710	0			
732	Korea, Rep	710		710	0		10	
740	Japan	710		2	0		7	7
365	Russia (So	710		710	0		6	
816	Vietnam, D	710		710	0		5	12
380	Sweden	710		710	0		11	
2	United Stat	710		710	0		1	
2	United Stat	710		710	0		6	
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2	United Stat	710		710	0			
713	Taiwan	710		710	0		8	1
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540	Angola	710		2	1	4400	6	12
540	Angola	710		2	1	4400	1	12
700	Afghanistar	710	2	2	1	4400	9	11
700	Afghanistar	710	2	2	1	4400	6	17
811	Cambodia	710	2	2	1	4400	12	1
482	Central Afri	710	220	2	1	4400	12	5
437	Cote DIvoir	710	220	220	1	4400	11	15
437	Cote DIvoir	710	220	220	1	4400	2	1
437	Cote DIvoir	710	220	220	1	4400	12	20
437	Cote DIvoir	710		220	1	4400	4	28
731	Korea, Peo	710	2	2	1	4400	7	15
731	Korea, Peo	710	2	2	1	4400	3	7
490	Congo, Der	710	220	2	1	4400	7	28
490	Congo, Der	710	220	220	1	4400	4	18
490	Congo, Der	710	220	220	1	4400	3	31
490	Congo, Der	710	220	220	1	4400	5	28
531	Eritrea	710	2	2	1	4400	12	5
530	Ethiopia	710	2	2	1	4400	5	17
531	Eritrea	710	2	2	1	4400	5	17
345	Yugoslavia	710	220	229	1	4400	9	25
345	Yugoslavia	710	2	2	1	4400	9	12
404	Guinea-Bis	710		220	1	4400	5	18
41	Haiti	710	2	2	1	4400	8	27
41	Haiti	710	2	2	1	4400	10	13
630	Iran (Persia	710	2	2	1	4400	12	23
630	Iran (Persia	710	2	2	1	4400	3	24
630	Iran (Persia	710	2	2	1	4400	3	3
630	Iran (Persia	710	2	2	1	4400	6	9
645	Iraq	710	2	2	1	4400	10	23
645	Iraq	710	2	2	1	4400	5	22
645	Iraq	710	2	2	1	4400	6	8
660	Lebanon	710	2	2	1	4400	10	31
450	Liberia	710	2	2	1	4400	11	19
450	Liberia	710	2	2	1	4400	3	7
450	Liberia	710	2	2	1	4400	5	6
450	Liberia	710	2	2	1	4400	12	22
450	Liberia	710	2	2	1	4400	6	16
620	Libya	710	2	2	1	4400	11	11
620	Libya	710	200	2	1	4400	9	16
517	Rwanda	710	220	2	1	4400	5	17
517	Rwanda	710	220	2	1	4400	8	16
451	Sierra Leor	710		2	1	4400	10	8
451	Sierra Leor	710		2	1	4400	3	16
451	Sierra Leor	710		2	1	4400	10	22
451	Sierra Leor	710		2	1	4400	7	5
451	Sierra Leor	710		2	1	4400	1	16
520	Somalia	710	2	2	1	4400	1	23
520	Somalia	710	200	2	1	4400	5	3
520	Somalia	710	200	2	1	4400	11	20

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520	Somalia	710		2	1	4400	2	22
626	South Suda	710	2	2	1	4400	7	
626	South Suda	710	2	2	1	4400	5	
625	Sudan	710	2		1	4400	4	26
700	Afghanistar	710	2	2	1	4400	6	17
2	United Stat	710		710	0		1	2
740	Japan	710		710	0		5	6
816	Vietnam, D	710		710	0		8	30
70	Mexico	710		710	0		4	24
365	Russia (So	710		710	0		8	7
1653	EU	710		710	1	4580	2	4
20	Canada	710		710	0	4580	12	11
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	4	4
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	8	14
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	2	28
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	8	14
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	4	5
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	9	2
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	8	23
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2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	9	14
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	4	17
740	Japan	710		710	1	4400	4	23
732	Korea, Rep	710		710	0	4580	12	11
1653	EU	710		710	1	4400	12	29
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1653	EU	710		710	1	4580	12	12
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	5	25
2	United Stat	710		710	1	4580	9	

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startyear	endmonth	endday	endyear	ongoingasc	ongoingasc	ongoingasc	duration	verified
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1977	10	4	1983				2279	1
2020								1
2019				4		2019		1
2018			2018					1
2007	6	13	2007				641	0
1967	10	7	1971				1562	1
2018						2020		0
2019				9	22	2020		0
1997	5	22	1997				44	1
2010			2010				109	0
2015				1	6	2021		1
2019								1
1994	2	26	1995				320	1
2016								1
2012				10	20	2016	1654	0
2016								0
1997				6	30	2004	2393	1
2004								0
1991	1	16	1992				266	1
1996	12	8	1996				29	1
1996				4	23	1996	22	0
2014				7	31	2022	3012	0
2019						2020	365	1
2016								1
2002	11	7	2002				2	1
2007							396	0
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2007	9		2008				366	1
2016				1	24	2017	60	0
2019				9	22	2020	512	1
2008								0
1991	1		1994				884	1
2008	11		2009				335	0
2019			2019					1
1982			1984					1
1958	2	4	1959				75	1
1981	2	1	1984				1126	1
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2020						2023		1
2019								0
2019								1

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2018				9	22	2020	902	1
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2018				9	22	2020	781	1
2019				9	22	2020	812	1
2020								1
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1999	12	9	2002				1427	1
2001	6	17	2011				3566	1
2011				7	31	2022	4062	1
1992	9	24	1993					
2013				7	31	2022	3160	1
2004	2	1	2005				78	1
2005	12	15	2005				317	1
2010	4	28	2011				129	1
2011				7	31	2022	4112	1
2006				7	31	2022		
2013				7	31	2022	3433	1
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2005	3	31	2008				1078	1
2008	5	28	2010				788	1
2010				7	31	2022	4447	1
2011	11	14	2018					
2000	5	16	2001				364	1
2000	5	16	2001				364	1
1991	5	30	1992				248	1
1991	10	1	1996					
2012				7	31	2022	3726	1
1993	10	13	1993				47	1
1993	5	6	1994				205	1
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2003	12	22	2003				230	1
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2006	4	19	2018			2013	4325	1
1993				7	31	2022		
2011				7	31	2022	3971	1
1994	8	16	1995				456	1
1995	7	10	2008				4712	1
1997	3	16	1998				159	1
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2002	9	29	2010				3178	1
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2002	11	20	2008				2393	1
2008	12	23	2009				398	1

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2012	12	1	2023				3812	1
2018				7	31	2022		
2019				7	31	2022		
1996	9	28	2001					
2011				7	31	2022	4062	1
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2018						2020		1
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2018						2020		1
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1997				6	30	2004	2393	1
2008			2010				2402	1
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2016	6	15	2020				1281	1
2012								1
2018								1

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TargetCost	smart_TIES	smart_CES	sancimposi	sancimposi	sancimposi	finaloutcom	sendersettl	tgtsettlenat
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1	0	1				9	5	5
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1	0	0				3	4	6
1	1	1	6		2017	9	5	5
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1	1	1	8	1	2019	9	4	6
1	1	1				9	5	5

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targetcapit	chinaoutco	success	PRC_leade	PRCleader	China_Tar	China_Initiator_MID
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0	0	0	Xi Jinping	1	0	0
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0	0	0	Xi Jinping	1	0	0
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Measuring Chinese Economic Sanctions 1949-2020: Introducing the China TIES Dataset

December 15, 2023

Abstract

Research on China's use of economic sanctions has proliferated in recent decades, yet coverage of Chinese sanctions in existing sanctions datasets is both inconsistent and incomplete. This article introduces both a new dataset on sanctions involving China as well as a research framework for expanding knowledge about non-Western economic sanctions more generally. The Chinese Economic Sanctions dataset (aka China TIES) includes 131 episodes where China is the sender and 88 episodes where it is the target from 1949-2020. Over 70% of our cases were not captured by the existing datasets. We use the Threat and Imposition of Economic Sanctions dataset (TIES v.4) as a baseline for identifying and coding sanctions episodes and provide a set of standardized narratives documenting each episode with secondary sources. The result is a dataset that is interoperable with TIES but also contains new variables that better capture the informal nature of many Chinese sanctions. We describe the dataset, paying special attention to the ways Chinese sanctions differ from other senders, and we present descriptive statistics for some of the key variables, highlighting the evolution of China's sanctions use over time.

Key words: economic sanctions, economic coercion, China, Chinese foreign policy, dataset

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1 Introduction

Over the past decade, scholars of Chinese foreign policy have taken increasing interest in China's use of economic sanctions and its growing capacity for economic coercion (Lim & Ferguson, 2021; Kastner & Pearson, 2021; Poh, 2021; Zhang, 2019; Lai, 2018; Poh, 2017; Reilly, 2012). However, few scholars working in this new literature have engaged with the substantial body of research on economic sanctions that has matured over the last thirty years. At the same time, the Teaching, Research, and International Policy (TRIPS) Project counts 108 journal articles on sanctions published in top international relations journals from 1990 to 2018, of which 10 focus on East Asia (the majority of these about North Korea) and none focus on China. Surprisingly little overlap exists between these parallel literatures, both of which could be enriched by further comparative analysis of China's sanctions behavior. A key reason for the bifurcated development of these parallel literatures on Chinese sanctions behavior, beyond the normal tendency towards disciplinary insularity, is the lack of comparable data.

Episodes of Chinese sanctions are both underrepresented and inconsistently documented in existing cross-national sanctions datasets. The workhorse dataset for the quantitative sanctions literature is the Threat and Imposition of Economic Sanctions (TIES) data set (Morgan *et al.*, 2009, 2014). TIES is the most exhaustive in its coding and documenting of global sanctions cases, including some China-initiated, as well as China-targeted sanctions. It documents 1412 dyadic sanctions episodes across 41 variables cataloging both the threat and imposition characteristics of the sender and target state. Unfortunately, TIES 4.0 only covers sanction episodes from 1945-2005 while the frequency and intensity of Chinese economic sanctions expanded dramatically after 2010. Other datasets on sanctions such as the Global Sanctions Database (GSDB) (Felbermayr *et al.*, 2020), the EUSANCT Dataset (Weber & Schneider, 2022), and another compiled by the Peterson Institute for International Economics (Hufbauer *et al.*, 1990) focus more exclusively on sanctions episodes involving the European Union and the United States. The GSDB-R2 provides temporal coverage from 1950-2019 but only contains 9 cases where China is the unilateral sender.

Additionally, neither TIES nor GSDB provides any documentation to allow users to verify the facts of individual sanctions episodes. This lack of documentation is manageable for cases of U.S. sanctions where the government publishes detailed sanctions lists, but becomes unmanageable for more ambiguous sanctions episodes where the sender does not officially provide a reason for the sanction or does not acknowledge the use of economic coercion at all.

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Previous research has noted that sanctions by China or Russia are often more implicit and that, unlike sanctions by the US or EU, they are often less formalized and not necessarily codified in official laws or administrative acts (Weber & Schneider, 2022). Indeed, China does not have an administrative equivalent to the US Treasury Office of Foreign Assets Control (OFAC) to administer sanctions. Unlike the US, most of its unliateral sanctions involve import or export restrictions that look more like non-tariff barriers, rather than financial sanctions or export controls. Without documentation, researchers must guess why some episodes are included in these existing datasets while other similar episodes are excluded. At the same time, the Chinese foreign policy literature has not converged upon commonly accepted criteria for what constitutes an episode of economic sanctions or coercion. Debates persist about whether widely reported cases of Chinese economic coercion occurred at all (King & Armstrong, 2013; Poh, 2017; Evenett & Fritz, 2023).

To address these concerns about what counts as an economic sanction episode in Chinese foreign policy, we introduce the Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) aka 'China TIES' Dataset. The CES updates and expands the TIES dataset for sanctions episodes involving China by drawing on newspaper reports as well as scholarship from the Chinese foreign policy studies community. [1] We also cross-reference each economic sanction episode with not only TIES but also GSDB, PIIE, and EUSANCT. Table 1 shows that CES is the most comprehensive dataset of Chinese sanctions by a substantial margin, identifying and documenting 131 episodes of sanctions where China is the sender and at least 88 episodes where it is the target from 1949-2020.

Table 1: Comparing CES to Existing Economic Sanctions Data Sets

Economic Sanctions Data Sets	Coverage	PRC Sender	Unilateral	PRC Target	Narratives
Threat & Imposition of Econ. Sanctions (TIES)	1945-2005	26	20	45	N
Global Sanctions Database (GSDB)	1950-2019	40	9	24	N
Peterson Institute for Intl. Econ. (PIIE)	1914-2006	3	3	0	Y
EUSANCT	1989-2015	1	0	7	N
China Economic Sanctions (CES)	1949-2020	131	65	88	Y

Currently, our data shows that over half of China-involved economic sanctions episodes occurred in the 15 years between 2005-to-2020. 73% of China-involved sanctions activity we

[1] We believe the TIES codebook, with the distinction it draws between threats and impositions, is the most comprehensive and thoughtful treatment of economic sanctions and use it as a baseline for coding our cases.

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identify are not captured by existing economic coercion data, 75 (57%) *China Sender* and 46 (52%) *China Target* economic coercion episodes occur after 2005 –or 56% total.

1.1 Contributions

In addition to extending the TIES data 15 years forward to 2020 using the TIES codebook as a baseline to code existing variables for new cases and identifying cases that TIES missed, we make the important contribution of documenting each case with a publicly accessible narrative. The sanctions episodes in the TIES dataset do not come with any documentation and thus researchers must rely on the coding decisions of the authors on subjective measures such as the outcome of the episode. The Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) dataset is not only fully compatible with TIES and EUSANCT but includes detailed case narratives that serve as the ground truth for our coding of quantitative measures. Future scholars of Chinese foreign policy can make use of both the data and narratives, modifying our coding as new facts or interpretations of the episodes in question emerge. [2] Scholars of sanctions can easily merge the new China data into current and future versions of TIES as needed.

We also add 21 original new variables[3] that are not part of the original TIES codebook. Some of these track China-specific dimensions of sanctions, such as recurring sanctions threatened or imposed over Taiwan arms sales or Dalai Lama state visits. Other variables, such as 'verified' (Zhang, 2019) help deal with the challenge of documenting implicit or private threats. We look to these traditional red lines for Chinese foreign policy and examine ambiguous statements by government spokespeople that can be interpreted as threats. However, we also add new measures for severity, success, and verified which we believe are important refinements to TIES–the original TIES dataset contains a lot of missing data on these key outcome variables. We believe that the CES Dataset can complement existing data sources by offering possibilities to analyze new forms of economic coercion. We will

[2]We take an inclusive approach to counting episodes. Five cases were included in TIES v4 which we are unable to match to a sanctions episode, we keep these in the dataset with the original coding. Similarly, there are sanctions cases - such as the Philippines banana embargo - that were widely reported but subsequently disputed by scholars. We also include these cases but note the disagreement in the narratives. Finally, we challenge the traditional distinction between "political" uses of sanctions in "high politics" and "apolitical" uses of tariffs and trade remedies as "low politics" because the tit-for-tat measures of the U.S.-China Trade War render such a neat distinction to be untenable.

[3]these variables include both substantive and titular variables. A complete list of new variables include: Case Names, Narrative Links, Cross-referenced coding (TIES, PIIE, GSDB), verified, UNSC sponsored, Tibet, Taiwan, human rights, anticipated sender and target costs (CES), sender and target costs (CES), smart sanctions (CES), settlement nature for the sender and target (CES), China Result, success, and China's leadership (paramount).

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maintain a web-based repository where one can download the updated China episodes in a TIES-compatible format and in a stand-alone format with these new variables.

In sum, we offer not only a timely expansion of TIES but also a framework for expanding knowledge about non-Western economic sanctions more generally. The narratives-based approach that we describe in this paper combines the best of qualitative research and quantitative research methods to foster the accumulation of knowledge about China's economic sanctions. This approach offers an advantage over existing research using TIES by capturing rather the obscuring the nuance in ambiguous sanctions episodes. We show that existing Western-centric "global" sanctions datasets under-count cases of Chinese sanctions. We believe our data can enable exciting new comparative analysis into the scope conditions for the relative efficacy of sanctions threats and imposition by non-Western senders. Subsequent research agendas on Russia TIES or India TIES could be developed using the framework we describe in this paper. We hope to collaborate with foreign policy scholars who specialize in other under-covered sanction senders to create expansions of TIES.

2 Literature Review

2.1 What is unique about Chinese sanctions?

Since 2010, a rising number of scholars and analysts of Chinese foreign policy have linked China's use of economic sanctions and a more assertive Chinese foreign policy (Reilly, 2012; Mastro, 2014; Lee, 2014; Chen & Garcia, 2016; Chang Liao, 2018; Lin, 2019; Zhang, 2019; Lim & Ferguson, 2021; Yoder, 2020; Poh, 2021; Yu, 2021). This literature is concerned primarily with the coercive potential of growing Chinese economic power to serve more ambitious foreign policy goals. It remains largely descriptive, using expert interviews and case studies to understand Chinese motivations and target responses.

No comparative analysis of Chinese economic sanctions compared to global benchmarks has yet been attempted. However, the growing China sanctions literature points to a few distinguishing characteristics of Chinese sanctions. China's use of economic coercion has been variously described as "vague, selective, and informal" (Reilly, 2012; Chen & Garcia, 2016; Lim & Ferguson, 2021) to cautious (Zhang, 2019) and inconsistent (Poh, 2021). In the parlance of the general sanctions literature, China rarely explicitly threatens sanctions, opting instead for ambiguity and plausible deniability. The only case of explicit Chinese

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sanctions was against Australia in 2020 [4]. This stands in sharp contrast to the sanctioning practice of the United States and European Union which threaten sanctions with clear demands. Until 2020, China did not have any administrative laws on the books dealing with economic sanctions. Since the passage of the Provisions of the Unreliable Entity List (PUEL) in September 2020 and the Anti-Foreign Sanctions Law (AFSL) in June 2021, a rudimentary framework to counteract foreign economic sanctions has begun to emerge with the Ministry of Commerce of China (MOFCOM) as the lead enforcement agency. [5] For nearly the entire period of coverage of the CES dataset (1949-2020), these laws did not exist and China did not have a coherent legal framework for the administration of sanctions. China did not have an administrative equivalent to the U.S. State Department Office of Economic Sanctions Policy and Implementation or the U.S. Treasury Office of Foreign Assets Control (OFAC) to administer sanctions.

China's reticence in threatening sanctions also is puzzling given the finding in the sanctions literature about the threats being more successful than imposition (Drezner, 2003; Lacy & Niou, 2004; Bapat *et al.*, 2013). Poh (2021) argues that China shied away from explicit sanctions because its leaders have historically advocated against sanctions and care about their credibility and international status, and are thus constrained from exercising its economic leverage. While the book is carefully researched, this explanation is not terribly convincing given how little Chinese leaders seem to be constrained by their previous rhetoric or concerns over international status when it comes to other issues such as human rights in Xinjiang or the status of Hong Kong.

A more plausible explanation might be China's authoritarian politics. Threats may be more effective than imposition for a democratic sender such as the United States because domestic audience costs render their threats more credible (Lacy & Niou, 2004; Whang *et al.*, 2013). China, lacking a democratic electorate to placate domestically, may prefer to make its sanctions threats in private so that it has the plausible deniability if it backs down. There are two flaws with this explanation. First, we would expect at least some of the private threats to be made public by target states seeking international support against Chinese coercion, particularly after the sanctions are imposed. Second, a robust literature

[4]In November 2020, the Chinese Embassy in Canberra issued a list of "14 grievances" that Australia was expected to correct to return to a normal relationship after placing export restrictions on a number of Australian products. It is noteworthy that this list was publicly issued after the imposition of trade sanctions rather than threatened

[5]Since the adoption of the AFSL in 2021, China has officially sanctioned two U.S. defense companies, Northrop Grumman and Lockheed Martin, for Taiwan arms sales in 2022. Future data collection on Chinese sanctions behavior before and after the new legal framework would be a fruitful area of future research.

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suggests that Chinese leaders face audience costs (Weiss, 2013; Quek & Johnston, 2017; Weiss & Dafoe, 2019; Li & Chen, 2021) and can manipulate them for advantage. The evidence in the case of sanctions seems to be the opposite where the government is consistently less hawkish on disrupting economic linkages than its nationalist public. In fact, Chinese sanctions may serve a performative function, as a low-cost way of displaying strong leadership during international crises as Whang (2011) found to be the case in the United States. Imposing limited and ineffective sanctions impositions may be more useful to the leader than broad and effective sanctions threats that would be costly to impose and costlier to back down from.

The most persuasive explanation for China's sanctioning behavior is offered by Ketian Zhang's "cost-balancing theory." (Zhang, 2019) In the context of disputes related to the South China Sea (SCS), Zhang (2019) draws on elite interviews to argue that China sought to establish a 'reputation for resolve' (138)–threats, initiations of coercion, and economic sanctions are therefore a mechanism of signaling first-and-foremost. These decisions on coercion stem specifically from high-level elite decision-making and not other potential constraining factors: notably, she identifies that interviewees see the Politburo Standing Committee as the key body guiding coercive decision-making (155). Chinese sanctions were heavily guided by how leaders perceived the economic and geopolitical 'costs' of coercion and their reputational benefits. Extending her logic of "kill the chicken to scare the monkey" (*shajijinghou*) beyond the SCS, Chinese economic sanctions can be understood as a means to signal resolve when economic costs are relatively low or when the cost of military coercion is relatively high.

2.2 Overreacting to Chinese Economic Coercion: Review of the Chinese Foreign Policy Literature

How worried should scholars and policymakers be about Chinese economic sanctions? The Biden administration has made standing up to China's economic coercion a central message in its calls on friends and partners to 'de-risk' from China. Many scholars also link recent episodes of Chinese sanctions to a more assertive Chinese foreign policy. However, most of these studies exemplify what Johnston (2013) finds problematic about the "new assertiveness meme" in Chinese foreign policy – selecting on the dependent variable. That is, they seem to prove that Chinese foreign policy is becoming more assertive by only looking at cases of Chinese sanctions that support this conclusion. Scholars on both sides of the assertiveness

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debate tend to select sanctions (or non-sanctions) cases that accord with their conclusion.

Despite its normative reservations and inconsistent formal foundation for engaging in unilateral sanctions (Reilly, 2012; Yu, 2021), China has engaged in several high-profile episodes of economic coercion over the past decade. [6] Scholars have linked these Chinese sanctions to growing a more assertive Chinese foreign policy and its willingness to use economic leverage to defend its 'core national interests' (Reilly, 2012; Chang Liao, 2018; Yoder, 2020). Yet individual case studies that focus only on high-profile examples of Chinese sanctions may not represent the true variation as well as cross-national analysis using time series data. Additionally, there is a surprising amount of disagreement about whether sanctions episodes widely reported in the media such as the 'banana ban' against the Philippines (Poh, 2017) and the rare earths 'embargo' against Japan (King & Armstrong, 2013; Evenett & Fritz, 2023) were actually acts of economic coercion.

This uncertainty is inevitable due to the informal nature of Chinese sanctions and poses a challenge for systematic data collection. However, the lack of a common definition of what counts as a sanction also hinders knowledge accumulation in this literature. Poh (2021) argues that there were "no signs of formal Chinese sanctions before 2018" (16). She concludes that the recent rise in a willingness to engage in unilateral sanctions largely stemmed from a progressive and gradual lowering in the threshold of 'prior rhetorical restraint' related to China's past statements criticizing the use of sanctions. But this ignores China's United Nations Security Council (UNSC) sanctions voting, (Wuthnow, 2013) as well as its formal trade actions against the United States in the 1990s and 2000s (Zeng, 2004).

The focus on assertiveness in the Chinese Foreign Policy literature neglects the question of sanctions effectiveness preoccupying the mainstream sanctions literature. The global average rate of success of economic sanctions is about 30% and China's economic sanctions succeed at comparable or lower rates depending on the way success is measured. China has an increasing capacity for economic sanctions as it grows economically but often fails to coerce weaker adversaries such as South Korea and Australia to adjust policies. China may be suffering from what Sechser (2010) calls "Goliath's curse" where powerful states fail to coerce weaker adversaries because the sender underestimates the reputation costs to the target of giving in to a threat made by a stronger adversary. Scholars of Chinese foreign policy should devote more efforts to understanding the determinants of sanctions effectiveness and the possibility that growing Chinese economic power may hinder sanctions

[6] Lim & Ferguson (2021) describe China's informal sanctions in response the South Korean THAAD deployment in 2017. Ferguson *et al.* (2023) examine Chinese restrictions on trade with Australia in 2020.

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success.

The literature on Chinese economic coercion could benefit from a comparative analysis of the frequency and efficacy of Chinese sanctions. However, when it comes to economic sanctions, no time series data exist to compare China's use of this coercive instrument historically.

2.3 Undercounting Chinese Sanctions: Review of the Sanctions Literature

An enduring puzzle for the sanctions literature is why they remain popular instruments of foreign policy despite their seemingly low rates of success. (Hufbauer *et al.*, 1990) found that only one-third of sanctions episodes between 1914-1990 resulted in success. (Pape, 1997) infamously argued that sanctions success is as low as 5 percent due to the strength of modern states to resist them. Scholars have since pointed out that the selection process behind which sanctions are observed may be preventing us from appropriately evaluating the level and determinants of sanctions success (Drezner, 2003; Lacy & Niou, 2004; Bapat *et al.*, 2013). The idea is that sanctions do not need to be imposed in cases where they would induce targets to alter their behavior preemptively. Targets can anticipate costs when sanctions are threatened and change their policies before sanction impositions actually occur. As a result, the cases where sanctions are observed may be biased towards the hard targets that do not relent even when faced with the prospect of sanctions.

A major contribution that the TIES data set makes is to amass data not only on post-selection sanctions episodes observed but also pre-selection sanctions threatened (Morgan *et al.*, 2009; Bapat *et al.*, 2013). However, subsequent empirical analysis using the new threats data still does not increase sanctions success rates greater than half the time (Morgan *et al.*, 2014). Additionally, because senders in the TIES data are overwhelmingly democracies, much less is known about the relative effectiveness of threats and impositions by autocratic senders compared to the body of research on autocracies as targets (Peksen, 2019; Grauvogel & Von Soest, 2014; Peksen & Drury, 2010; Allen, 2008).

Political Scientists and economists have made important advances in our theoretical and empirical understanding of the causes and effects of economic sanctions as well as of their effectiveness and success. Advances in theoretical understanding have been guided by empirical findings, which are, in turn, made possible by the availability of reliable data. The TIES data set has made possible significant advancements in the literature but its coverage

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stops in 2005. Since then, a growing number of international actors from the European Union and African Union to China and Russia have been increasingly active in economic coercion. Weber & Schneider (2022) makes an important contribution with the EUSANCT dataset, which covers all threatened and imposed sanctions by the EU, UN, and US from 1989-2015. However, this updated data set does not include China or Russia cases because the authors worried that information about their use of economic coercion would not be consistently reported in English language news (Weber & Schneider, 2022).

The mainstream sanctions literature has thus suffered from a Western-centric bias due to the lack of high-quality comparative data on authoritarian sanctions. The majority of cases in existing cross-national analysis are driven by the United States and the European Union and thus general findings about the efficacy of threats over imposition or considerations about domestic audience costs may not be true of all sanctions but rather be a function of regime type and case selection. The study of informal sanctions threats by authoritarian regimes promises to contribute a more nuanced theoretical understanding to the strategic logic of economic sanctions. By drawing on the growing qualitative research on Chinese economic coercion from area experts, the CES data set fills in this gap and enables the emergence of an authoritarian sanctions literature that engages in dialogue, based on comparable data and methods, with the US and EU-dominated mainstream sanctions literature.

3 The Data

3.1 What counts as a sanction?

We follow Morgan *et al.* (2014) in defining economic sanctions as threats or actions that one or more states take to limit or end their economic relations with a target entity in an effort to persuade that country to change its policies. Economic sanctions can take the form of embargoes, blockades, import restrictions, export restrictions, asset freezes, termination of foreign aid, travel bans, or the suspension of economic agreements. We see economic coercion as a subset of economic sanctions and economic sanctions as a subset of economic statecraft (Baldwin, 2020). All economic coercion involves what Baldwin calls negative sanctions, that is they deprive the target of something of economic value in order to influence behavior, but not all economic sanctions are coercive. Some types of economic sanctions, such as export controls on dual-use technology, are designed for denial or containment while others, like travel bans on leaders, serve a symbolic or deterrent purpose.

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We recognize that some scholars (Hufbauer *et al.*, 1990; Felbermayr *et al.*, 2020) believe that trade sanctions are fundamentally different from sanctions imposed for other "political" issues and that they should not be analyzed together. While it can be argued that tariffs are primarily economic or domestic rather than political or international matters, the distinction seems ridiculous in the case of the U.S.-China Trade War where one would be hard-pressed to argue that the Trump administration's use of Section 301 tariffs is non-political or non-international. We thus follow Morgan *et al.* (2014) in opting for inclusivity with the knowledge that any user can easily exclude trade sanctions from the data set. We do not include every case of anti-dumping (AD) or countervailing duties (CVD) involving China in our dataset [7] because most of these routine trade actions are motivated by the domestic politics of protectionism and receive scant media coverage (which affects case selection into TIES). However, we do include the four lists of section 301 tariffs that the Trump administration imposed on China in 2018-2019 as well as the four lists of Chinese retaliatory tariffs as eight distinct episodes of economic sanctions (issue: trade practices, type: import restrictions). This follows the precedent set by TIES v4, which included three rounds of disputes between the US and China in the 1990s over US threats to revoke China's most-favored nation (MFN) status over human rights concerns in the wake of the Tiananmen Square crackdown in 1989. Unilateral trade sanctions were imposed and retaliatory measures were taken by both the US and China during the 1990s. These were heavily politicized and contentious trade disputes that went beyond routine trade politics.

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3.1.1 WTO Disputes

We follow the TIES codebook in deciding which cases of tariffs and counter-veiling duties are included as episodes. "By definition, a sanction must (a) involve one or more sender states and a target state and (b) be implemented by the sender in order to change the behavior of the target state. Actions taken by states that restrict economic relations with other countries for solely domestic economic policy reasons, therefore, do not qualify as sanctions" (Morgan *et al.*, 2014, p.543). These distinctions can seem arcane but are important politically. Companies can be found guilty of "dumping" if it exports a product at a lower price than the price it would normally charge domestically under trade law and governments can respond with antidumping duties (AD) to compel fair pricing. These measures are not generally con-

[7] For context, Chad Bown documents 36 AD and 5 CVD cases imposed by China on the US and 103 AD and 55 CVD cases imposed by the US on China between 2001 and 2017. Perhaps we can include these in a future version.

sidered sanctions because they do not aim to change state behavior. Countervailing duties (CVD) on the other hand are used when a foreign government provides enough subsidies and tax benefits for their manufacturers to sell their goods more cheaply than domestic manufacturers. These duties are meant to change state behavior and are often quite politicized in the case of China because they involve state-owned enterprises and industrial policy.

Complicating matters further is China's accession to the World Trade Organization (WTO) in 2001. Before WTO accession, AD and CVD involving China were essentially unilateral. [8] After WTO accession, AD/CVD trade disputes are subject to binding dispute settlement. As Morgan *et al.* (2014) notes the global incidence of sanctions in trade disputes increased substantially in the 1980s but decreased in the 2000s due likely to the adoption of the WTO dispute settlement mechanism reducing the need to use unilateral economic sanctions in trade disputes.

We consider the initiation of WTO cases by China against the target country to be a sanctions threat. This helps preserve the balance of similar trade dispute cases before and after WTO accession. We chose to include all cases filed by China and against China in the World Trade Organization (WTO) dispute settlement mechanism (DSM) as threats of economic sanctions because they are trying to change state behavior. For example, China filed a WTO case against US safeguards on solar panels in 2018 and the US filed a WTO case against Chinese retaliatory tariffs imposed in 2018. The WTO DSM is designed to encourage voluntary compliance with international trade law but failure to comply with a ruling by the WTO appellate body could legitimate retaliatory trade sanctions. We see these WTO cases as symbolic sanctions meant to use international law to deter further trade actions by states. China was keenly interested in joining the WTO precisely because it sought protection against the TIES episodes involving unilateral trade sanctions by the US it experienced in the 1990s (Zeng, 2004). We believed it would be misleading to include the cases of Chinese unilateral retaliations in the 1990s but not include attempts to settle similar disputes through the multilateral WTO framework after 2001.

We understand that this may be seen as a point of departure from TIES and made it easy for users to exclude these new cases. However, we believe that further debate is needed to determine how best to distinguish episodes of "ordinary" trade disputes such as those between the US and Canada from "extraordinary" trade wars that the US and China are

[8] China did not have a legal apparatus to investigate antidumping until the promulgation of the Anti-dumping and Anti-subsidy Regulations in 1997 but have since become on the most active users of trade remedy measures.

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currently entangled in, particularly with the US blocking the appointment of judges to the WTO's Appellate Body since 2018 to shield itself from trade retaliations. [9]

3.1.2 UNSC Sanctions

We follow the convention of TIES and EUSANCT and include cases where China participated in multilateral sanctions. China is a permanent member of the UN Security Council (UNSC) and has voted yes on many resolutions imposing sanctions on states. However, we were surprised to find that China was rarely listed as a sender in TIES or EUSANCT. Although China is not the primary sender for most of these sanctions, it is only listed as a secondary or tertiary sender once in EUSANCT and four times in TIES. This is somewhat puzzling because, while China is arguably not the primary sender in many of these sanctions, it is inconsistent to list France or the United Kingdom as a secondary or tertiary sender and not China or Russia.

Moreover, China's voting record in the UNSC varies over time due to international politics. China voted with the rest of the P5 members the majority of the time on UNSC sanctions resolutions but it has abstained or vetoed sanctions measures in the past. We cross-reference GSDB data on UNSC sanctions against China's voting record as well as research by Wuthnow (2013) and others. This allowed us to identify 56 UNSC sanctions resolutions while the PRC had the opportunity to vote. It voted yes in 47 episodes and abstained from voting in 9 cases. [10] We code each yes vote as a threat and imposition of economic sanctions. We also note that scholars have noted when China has threatened or used its veto as it did, along with Russia, vetoed new sanctions on North Korea in 2022. However, there was not a good way to systematically include these observations of veto threats in this data set.

3.1.3 What does not count?

Our decision to include WTO disputes and UNSC sanctions are both motivated by the desire to be consistent with precedents set by TIES and GSDB. Since these datasets included some trade disputes and some UNSC sanctions episodes involving China but excluded other

[9] In a global context where trade policy is becoming more contentious and framed in terms of national security, we believe the sanctions literature could engage more deeply with the trade politics literature to more clearly determine the demarcation of a sanction and a trade remedy.

[10] China abstained from UNSC sanctions resolutions against Cambodia (1992), Libya (1993), Bosnia (1991), Sudan (1996), Iraq (1997), Eritrea (2011), DPRK (2006), and South Sudan (2018, 2019)

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similar episodes, we decided to include all similar phenomena that we can link to China. We recognize that this inclusive definition of sanctions introduces heterogeneity into the dataset and that the political drivers of WTO and UNSC disputes may at times differ from those of unilateral sanctions. However, we believe that sanctions episodes should not be excluded at random (as was the case with TIES and GSDB) and included dummy variables to allow users of our dataset to filter out for both of these two categories.

Based on our definition, a sanction must be sent by one or more governments but the target can be another government (as it is in the majority of cases) or a non-state actor (as it is the case with some UNSC sanctions as well as some unilateral sanctions cases targeting foreign businesses). We recognize that this is a slight departure from TIES, which requires both sender and target to be states. But, in the post-9/11 world of smart or targeted sanctions as well as the literature on Chinese economic coercion, we believe the inclusion of non-state actors is more sensible. For example, we do consider punitive actions towards foreign companies to be economic sanctions such as when state-run television suspended the National Basketball Association (NBA) broadcast rights in China after a Houston Rockets executive expressed support for pro-democracy demonstrators in Hong Kong in 2019. In these cases, we code the target state for these sanctions as the location of the headquarters of the company, so the United States for the NBA. Although they are not aimed at changing the behavior of a target state, and thus do not fit neatly into the TIES definition, they are undoubtedly political and coercive. Many smart sanctions involving other countries also target corporations or individuals, such as seizing the yachts of Russian oligarchs, with varying degrees of implications for changing target state policy.

We do not consider consumer boycotts to be a form of economic sanctions unless they have national government backing. [11] These difficult coding decisions reflect the difficulty of distinguishing political versus economic coercion involving China. The political-economic (or high- vs low- politics) distinction relies on states viewing economic relationships as contained, insular, and discrete from other relationships–something that is probably not true in many places but is definitely not true of the party-state in China. This disentangling exercise is especially difficult in the context of the US-China relationship since the outbreak of the

[11] This may be controversial in light of work by Jessica Weiss on the strategic nature of anti-foreign protests and boycotts in China and we may expand the data later to include these episodes. Additionally, other researchers on Chinese coercive diplomacy, such as an Australian Strategic Policy Institute (ASPI) report, do not distinguish between state-issued sanctions and calls for boycotts in state-owned media, including tabloids and op-eds. The inclusion of these boycott cases would dramatically increase the number of sanctions threats but they rarely materialize and are not intended as credible signals of coercive intent.

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Trade War in 2018 as both governments increasingly frame economic competition in national security terms (Liu *et al.*, 2022). Thus, we generally err toward inclusion when there is ambiguity about whether or not the sanction attempts to change the behavior of the target state.

3.2 Data Collection Process

The data collection proceeded in five stages. First, and emulating the original TIES process, cases were selected for candidacy through a time-limited (1949-2020) key-word search of NexisUni, New York Times Index and London Times Index.[12] Second, the research assistants were then tasked with researching the cases using secondary literature [13] and assembling short written summaries of the episodes identified, including key identifying features such as the start date, target, and issues of the case. Third, after assembling a list of candidate cases, the review team was tasked with (1) reconciling the candidate cases with the original TIES cases (1949-2005) and (2) identifying 'new' or 'missed' candidate cases. We exhaustively cross-referenced all episodes with the other prominent sanctions data sets such as the GSDB, PIIE, TSC, and EUSANCT. We include the case IDs for those cases that match cases from TIES, GSDB, and PIIE.

After this reconciliation, the research assistants were tasked with writing an episode narrative following a standardized template (see Appendix A) and citing secondary sources for key information for the set of CEC data set episodes. These written episode summaries were then used as the baseline or ground truth for our coding by the authors based on the codebook from TIES v4. Finally, two other graduate research assistants who did not write the narratives or participate in the coding but were trained in TIES v4 were tasked with checking the coding and the narratives. Mistakes and inconsistencies identified during this quality control process were then reconciled by the authors.

A sanctions episode begins either by threat or imposition. A threat can be rhetorical and come from an agency or government head capable of carrying out a threat (Heads of State, Heads of Government, Ministers of State or Treasury, etc.) or can be initiated through legislation, wherein the legislation eventually passes and becomes actionable.[14]. Sanctions

[12]The keyword search included the following terms: "China, sanction, restrict, tariff, threat, embargo, and consequence.

[13]Useful sources included the Congressional Research Service (CRS), the US Department of Commerce, reports by think tanks such as CNAS and ASPI, and books by Poh (2021); Reilly (2012)

[14]The legislation must pass and become actionable for one key reason: hundreds of China-related pieces of legislation are passed yearly and most are empty threats and do not result in any policy change

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Figure 1: Onset of CES Sanctions Cases



might have multiple senders, as in the case of multilateral UNSC sanctions, but can only have a single target for case listing.

Sanctions episodes end when one of the following conditions are met: (1) a sender(s) indicates a lack of interest in implementing a threatened action; (2) a sender announces an end (or fails to reinstate) an economic coercion package; or (3) the sender and target reach a mutually understood 'end' to the episode. Ongoing sanctions episodes are left with the final outcome missing.

The result of this effort is the Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) dataset which contains 131 episodes where China is the sender and 88 episodes where it is the target from 1949 to 2020. The data set is fully compatible with TIES and includes all original TIES variables, but we also add new China-specific variables such as who the paramount leader is, measures for assertiveness, and an alternative measure for severity. We assign new case names and descriptions to each verified case but also retain the original TIES caseID for overlapping cases. Each sanctions episode is documented with a narrative that allows users to verify, dispute, or alter our coding as they see fit. Since many of the important categorical variables such as outcome and cost are somewhat subjective, we believe this transparency is important. Figure 1 plots the annual onset of sanctions where China is a sender and confirms an uptick in Chinese sanctions activity since 2018.

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3.2.1 Improving on TIES

We believe our use of narratives as ground truth to code cases, provide transparency, and account for ambiguity is the biggest improvement of CES over TIES. However, we also note two significant coding improvements between our dataset and the original TIES codebook: (1) we conceptualize success as an ordinal measure reflecting the bargaining outcome and (2) we added a 'verifiable' variable to deal with ambiguous or unverifiable sanctions cases.

Measuring Success: Success is one of the most important variables in the sanctions literature and a hotly contested metric. TIES, GSDB, and EUSANCT all measure success differently. The original TIES did not include a 'success' variable, but instead used two strategies to identify what success might look like: (1) TIES used a nominal categorical scale to code 'final outcomes' relative to the point of initiation and the capitulation of the sender and/or target; (2) TIES coded variables on an ordinal 1-10 scale of the settlement nature for both the sender and target. 10 represents the best possible outcome for the settlement for either actor and a higher score for the sender does not necessarily mean a lower score for the target.

The CES *settlementnature* variables build upon the original TIES effort to use an ordinal 1-10 scale to measure how well senders and targets fared at the end of (or during ongoing) episodes. However, we see the outcome of each episode as the consequence of a bargaining interaction, meaning each state gains at the expense of the other. A 'neutral' or stalemate outcome between the two states would thus begin with a 5-5 coding for both the *settlementnaturesender* and *settlementnaturetarget* variables. This is modified by the result of the bargaining interaction. The higher the discrepancy between these two variables, the more favorable the result of the episode was for the state with the higher proportion out of ten. Mirroring the effort of the original TIES, we task coders to conceptualize factors such as (1) the meeting of overall goals; and (2) how the post-episode environment compared to the status quo ante to give a score from 1-10 to each side.

However, departing from the original TIES, if a sender/target receives a score out of ten (ex. 7 for sender), the opposing state must receive the residual score (ex. 3 for target). We feel that this approach was better at capturing how sanctions changed the status quo in the bilateral relationship with China. The TIES coding depends heavily on whether the target state takes observable actions to meet sender state demands, making it exceedingly difficult to assess acquiescence or capitulation in informal sanctions cases that did not involve clear demands. Our approach measures success in the context of the whole relationship rather than on acquiescence or capitulation on a particular policy.

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Table 2: CES China Result v. TIES Final Outcome Variable

Final Outcome (TIES)	NA	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	Total
Failure	2	0	0	0	1	0	0	0	1	5	0	9
Success	0	1	0	0	0	3	1	2	0	0	3	10
												19
China Result (CES)												
Negative	0	0	0	0	0	1	0	0	0	0	0	1
Neutral	0	0	0	0	0	2	0	0	1	4	2	9
Positive	0	0	0	0	0	0	0	2	0	1	1	4
												14

Table 2 compares our measure of success for China (China Result) in the post-sanctions bargain against TIES in the 14 cases where the two datasets have in common. We collapse the TIES outcomes measures into 'success' if the target partially (1,6) or fully (2,7) acquiesces or makes a negotiated settlement (5,10). The TIES coding yields a high success rate (10/19) for China when negotiated settlements count as success. However, our coding of the bargaining result better captures the fact that these negotiated settlements did not shift the status quo in the overall bilateral relationship with the target and that China's use of sanctions only occasionally made the target worse off and only once resulted in China being worse off [15].

An example that illustrates how the way we measure success in terms of the outcome of bargaining differ substantively from the way TIES coded success based on the degree of policy acquiescence can be seen in the China-USA Textile II case (ID: 199611710002). TIES would code the outcome for the sender as a 'success' because it resulted in a negotiated settlement. However, we call this a failure because China threatened retaliatory sanctions against the US, never imposed them, and the US textile sanctions remained in place against China after the dispute. The "settlement" only resolved escalation and not the existing economic provocation.

Verified Cases: We add a new binary variable of *verified* to address concerns about whether or not certain implicit sanctions episodes occurred at all (Poh, 2017) and also cite these concerns directly in the narrative. Cases where Chinese state involvement is clear and well-documented such as participation in UNSC sanctions against North Korea are coded as 1 'verified' while ambiguous and debated cases are coded as 0. Of the 131 cases of sanctions

[15]The four cases of successful PRC sanctions are: 1958 Embargo of Malaysian rubber (ID: 195811710820), 1961 Sino-Soviet Split (ID: 196106710365), 1967 Sanctions against Portuguese Macau (ID: 196701710235), and 1997 Economic threats against Denmark (ID: 199704710390). The one case of failure is: 1996 Backing down from import restrictions against the US(ID: 199611710002)

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initiated by China, we are confident 106 'verified' cases and the remaining 30 or so cases either because they are unverifiable or because the nature of the sanction threat or imposition was not explicit. Thus, a quarter of China as sender episodes is ambiguous in some way, much higher than the EUSANCT data set which relies on explicit threats and imposition of sanctions by US and EU governments to be sure, but a far cry from the claim that Chinese economic coercion cannot be studied systematically because they lack documentation.

It should be noted that we keep 5 unverifiable TIES episodes in the data for the sake of compatibility and because these constitute a significant portion of original TIES episodes involving China.[16]

3.2.2 China Specific Variables

Finally, we also add several China-specific variables that are important for identifying the dogs that did not bark in China's sanctions behavior. We know that China has had a consistent position on 'red line' issues such as opposing Taiwan arms sales and Dalai Lama visits. However, it has responded to these episodes with sanctions only some of the time such as in 1991 to protest French arms sales to Taiwan or in 2002 to punish Mongolia for hosting the Dalai Lama. At other times sanctions are threatened implicitly but not followed through such as against US arms sales to Taiwan in 2010. And yet other times, no threats of economic sanction were detected as in the numerous times the Dalai Lama visited the United States, United Kingdom, and Germany in the 2000s. Because much of the literature on Chinese economic coercion focuses on the role of leaders in shaping sanctions policy, we also include a variable that reflects who is the paramount leader of China at the time of sanctions onset.

Taiwan: For the dyadic version of the data, we code all country years that a given China trade partner also sells weapons to Taiwan as '1' regardless of the weapon sale size and scope. The Stockholm International Peace Research Institute (SIPRI) 'Arms Transfers Database' documents all international arms transfers since 1950, and most recently updated in March 2021.[17] We count 160 episodes of Taiwan arms sales, the vast majority involving the United States, and China responded with a threat or imposition of economic sanctions

[16]We tried to verify each episode in TIES based on the dates and target state, searching through newspaper archives as well as secondary sources. Cases flagged as unverifiable by one research assistant were always assigned to a second research assistant to independently verify. We also relaxed the dates to search for possible episodes in the adjacent years. Since TIES does not provide any documentation of cases, this is the best we can do to verify cases they include in the data set by retracing their methodology of identifying cases.

[17]SEE: https://www.sipri.org/databases/armstransfers

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in only 6 cases. We also code as '1' all sanctions episodes involving Taiwanese sovereignty such as those over Tsai Ing-wen's election (ID: 201601710713) or backlash against foreign support for Taiwan (ID: 201900710316).

Tibet: We catalog all official state visits made by the Dalai Lama from 1959-present. We use the official travel record of the Dalai Lama public website to code the variable. The binary variable is coded as '1' if the Dalai Lama made a state visit to the state/territory in a given year for the dyadic version of the data. India is always coded as '1' after 1959 because of the Dalai Lama's residence in Himachal Pradesh. We count 480 cases of Dalai Lama foreign visits in the data set, of which China responded with a threat or imposition of economic sanctions in 25 cases.

Human Rights: This variable picks up all the sanctions episodes that are issued in retaliation for foreign criticism of China's human rights record. Issues that triggered Chinese sanctions include criticizing Beijing for its repression of Uyghurs in Xinjiang, crackdown on protesters in Hong Kong, and awarding prizes to dissidents such as Liu Xiaobo. 11 of the sanctions cases included in our dataset are over human rights issues, notably 7 of these occurred in the past decade.

3.3 Descriptive Statistics

3.3.1 Targets

Our data shows that China has targeted 48 states with economic sanctions [18] with the United States being by far the most frequent target of both sanctions threats and impositions. The full list of sanctions targets is listed in Table 7 in Appendix A. Comparatively speaking, China has sanctioned a comparable number of countries (43) as the European Union (41) but still far fewer than the United States (103) since the end of the Cold War.

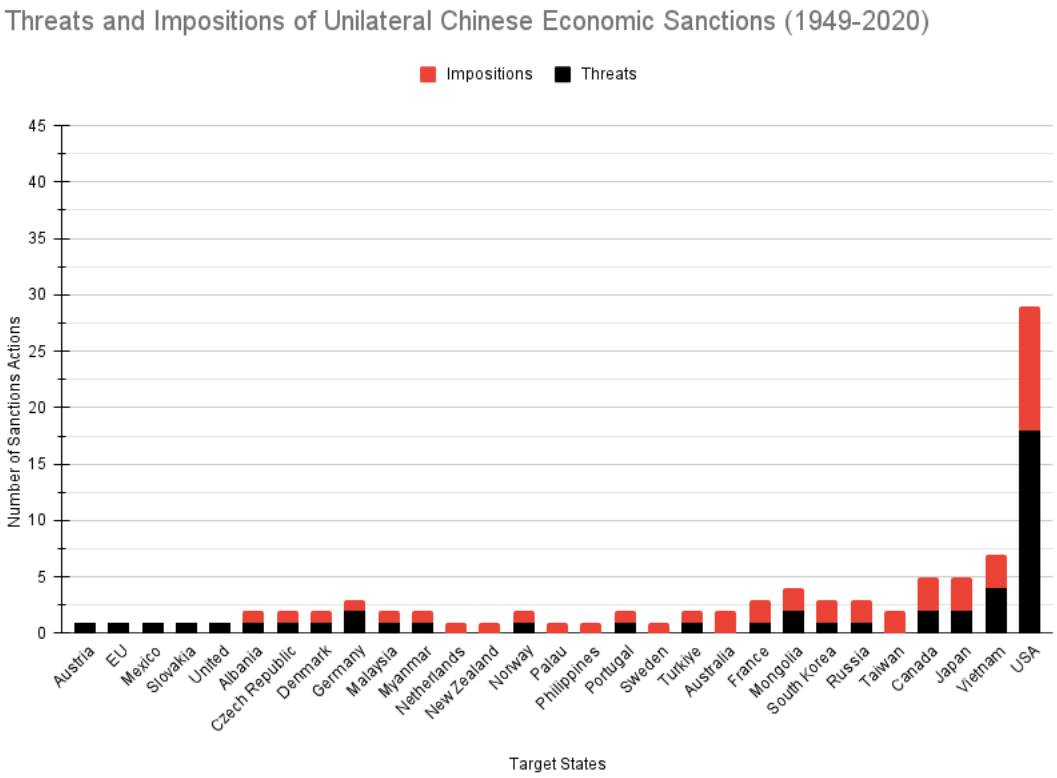
The countries most targeted by multilateral sanctions overlap with frequent targets of US and EU sanctions, they consist mostly of African and Middle Eastern countries such as Liberia, Sierra Leon, and Iran. This is because China generally voted along with the rest of the P5 in sanctioning coup leaders and preventing nuclear proliferation.

The list of unilateral sanctions is more interesting as it is dominated by the United States (20 cases) followed by Vietnam (6 cases) and Japan (4 cases). Figure 2 shows the distribution of the targets of unilateral threats and impositions by China.

[18] Sanctions against non-state actors such as a company are attributed to a target state

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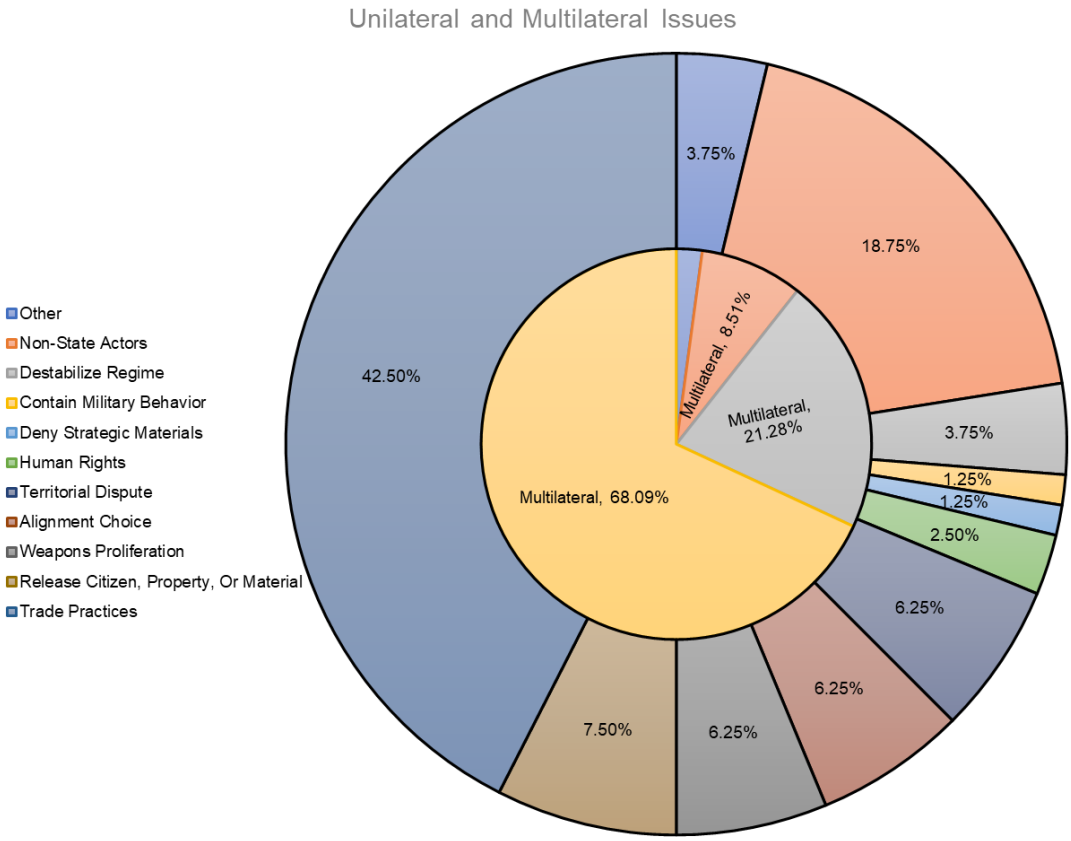
Figure 2: Targets of Unilateral Chinese Sanctions



3.3.2 Issues

Figure 3 compares the issues of multilateral sanctions against unilateral sanctions.

Figure 3: Unilateral and Multilateral Issues



The majority (68%) of China's multilateral sanctions are UNSC sanctions designed to contain military behavior and another (21%) are to destabilize regimes (usually after a coup).

By contrast, the plurality of China's unilateral sanctions (42%) are due to trade practices, most of these in the tit-for-tat escalation of the US-China Trade War. The second most common issue is support for non-state actors (19%), where China sanctions states that honor individuals Beijing considers dissidents or separatists such as the Dalai Lama. Other issues such as the release of citizens (such as Huawei CFO Meng Wanzhou), weapons proliferation (Taiwan arms sales), alignment choice, and territorial disputes each constitute between 6-7% of China's unilateral sanctions.

3.3.3 Types

Import restrictions are the most common type of sanctions imposed by China, which is consistent with the global average in TIES. China is much less likely to sanction using economic embargoes and termination of aid than the global average. It is more likely to resort to travel bans, suspension of economic agreements, and other (mostly detentions of foreign nationals) than TIES senders globally.

Table 3: Summary of Imposed Measures by Type

Sanction Type	TIES Imposed	%	China Imposed	%
Economic Embargo	137	0.1343	4	0.0571
Import Restriction	452	0.4431	32	0.4571
Export Restriction	58	0.0569	3	0.0429
Blockade	37	0.0363	1	0.0143
Asset Freeze	34	0.0333	4	0.0571
Terminate Aid	193	0.1892	4	0.0571
Travel Ban	49	0.0480	7	0.1000
Suspension of Economic Agreement	55	0.0539	8	0.1143
Other	5	0.0049	7	0.1000
Total	1020	100	70	100

3.3.4 Costs

The original TIES codebook opted to use several categorical variables (1-3) to capture 'costs' to the sender and target as well as continuous dollar value 'anticipated' and 'real' costs. 'Minor' episodes indicated the existence of no evidence of economic harm; 'major' episodes are characterized by "measures of inflation (over 5%) or unemployment rate and drastic reductions in trade"; and 'major' episodes signaled the destruction of the overall economy. However, these categories made it very challenging to consistently assess costs across cases. If the coder cannot identify a 'real cost' for the episode (an inflation figure, an unemployment rate, or real monetary reductions in trade) then the cost variable is often missing. As a result, 'anticipated target costs' were missing in 86% (1209/1412) of cases and 'real target costs' were missing in 92% (1298/1412) of the cases in TIES v4. The China cases specifically did not have any severity or 'costs' coding after 1992 in the original TIES, with only four historical cases with 'anticipated costs' coded and two historical cases with 'real target costs'

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coded. The variables to the dollar amount of costs are even more scarce and impossible to verify or adjust for inflation.

Our coders had great difficulty measuring the dollar value of sender and target costs based on publicly available information using the TIES approach. We decided to slightly modify TIES to focus instead on the severity of economic disruption during sanctions episodes. Variables received a 1 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) minor[19], 2 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) significant [20], and 3 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) catastrophic[21]. We believe our coding of these outcome variables are roughly comparable to the original categorical TIES measures but more easily verifiable from available secondary sources. In our view, tying sanctions to inflation or economic growth in the target state requires rigorous econometric analysis and few sanctions meet the catastrophic threshold set by TIES because most economic activity is domestic. Our coding strategy focuses on the impact of the sanction on the dyadic economic relationship and how severe the damage is to that relationship–allowing for a better distribution of the categorical variable. Table 4 compares our categorical variable for sender costs

Table 4: Anticipated and Actual Costs in CES (China) v. TIES (Global)

Costs	Anticipated	%	Total	Actual	%	Total
TIES Costs (Sender)						
Minor	678	79%		646	82%	
Major	158	18%		111	14%	
Severe	27	3%		32	4%	
			863/1412			789/1412
CES Costs (China)						
Minor	74	56%		82	63%	
Major	39	30%		32	24%	
Severe	13	10%		12	9%	
Unverifiable	5	4%		5	4%	
			131			131

[19]'minor' damage is denoted as little or no impact on bilateral economic ties

[20]'significant' damage is denoted as disruptive, or inflicting notable damage to the economy

[21]'catastrophic' damage is denoted as intended to or halt most economic activity or ending the trading relationship between two countries

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3.3.5 Outcomes

As discussed above, we measure the success of each sanctions episode in two ways. Chinese sanctions succeed 42% of the time according to TIES coding rules and result in a positive outcome for China 36% of the time. Somewhat less successful compared to 41% of unilateral US sanctions and 66% of EU sanctions (Weber & Schneider, 2022). The modal outcome for China's sanctions is stalemate following sanctions imposition, reflected in our coding of neutral China results.

Table 5: CES: TIES Outcome v. CES Result

Outcome (TIES)	Count	%	Total
Failure	76	58%	
Success	55	42%	
			131
China Result (CES)			
Negative	28	21%	
Neutral	56	43%	
Positive	47	36%	
			131

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4 Analyzing Chinese Sanctions

Our data reveal that, since the end of the Cold War, China has become the third largest sender of sanctions in the world, after the United States and the European Union. China's sanctions appear on average no more successful than those other the global average. However, it must be noted that China has become much more capable economically over time and it is hard to disentangle whether the growing number of Chinese sanctions simply reflect growing capabilities or a more coercive foreign policy. Our results show a more nuanced pattern of initiation in line with the findings by Poh (2021) where China's use of sanctions is more constrained than generally acknowledged, not only in scope but also in frequency. Additionally, aspects of China's sanctions behavior and outcomes go against the grain of some well-established empirical regularities found in the "global" sanctions literature.

First, China imposes a large number of sanctions without first issuing a threat, a behavior that is puzzling because the literature finds that threats are more effective (and less costly) than impositions. Table 6 shows that over 15% of all China's sanctions are imposed without

a preceding threat (these account for over one-third of unilateral sanctions). This is puzzling because the sanctions literature finds that threats are more effective (and less costly) than impositions. And indeed China's own sanctions threats are more successful than its sanctions impositions.

Table 6: Distribution of Sanction Threats, Imposed Sanctions by Sender

Sender	EU	USA	China
Total Number of Sanction Threats	68	200	111
Non-Imposed Threats	22	94	24
Imposed Threats	46	106	87
Total Impositions without Threats	0	0	20

Second, China participated as a sender of multilateral sanctions more than the previous literature gave credit for. The Chinese economic coercion literature has not engaged sufficiently with the literature on China's involvement in the UN or the literature on trade wars. This fact has escaped the mainstream sanctions literature which has systematically under-counted China's involvement in UNSC sanctions.

China's involvement in UNSC sanctions and WTO disputes is complicated by the fact that China has a growing stake in global governance but its national interests sometimes pull it in different directions than the US and EU. By contrast, US and EU foreign policy generally align with the goals of multilateral UNSC sanctions, such that they often unilaterally impose sanctions, against Iran or North Korea for example, alongside multilateral efforts. Thus, there is much less overlap in the targets of unilateral sanctions and multilateral sanctions by China compared to the US and EU. China is not unique in this, Russia's voting record in the UNSC is similarly complicated by its divergent interests from the liberal international order. The sanctions literature finds that multilateral sanctions are more likely to succeed than unilateral sanctions. Future research might profitably explore whether this empirical regularity holds for China and Russia and examine the cases where they abstain from multilateral sanctions votes.

Third, while the number of sanctions unilaterally initiated by China has risen sharply since 2018, Chinese sanctions have become less successful over time, and this is especially true during Xi's tenure. Less than one in six of China's sanctions under Xi Jinping has succeeded in achieving above a 'negotiated settlement'. We find that they are no more effective at getting the target state to meet the sender's demands than those where the

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United States or European Union is the sender. The irony of course is that China's use of economic sanctions has become much more institutionalized since 2018. Our data suggests that Chinese policymakers are still learning how to effectively wield targeted sanctions in coercive diplomacy. Thus far, they have either not been very good at picking their battles, or, more plausibly, have used new sanctions instruments such as the entities listing or export controls for signaling or deterrence rather than coercion. It is noteworthy that the U.S. sanctions literature grew out of a frustration over why high-profile sanctions cases "do not work" and much of the subsequent research has dealt with the question of effectiveness. Our dataset offers a way for scholars to systematically assess the success or effectiveness of Chinese sanctions in a similar way.

5 Conclusion

This paper aims to provide the most complete record of China's economic sanctions from 1949 to 2020. The Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) dataset is not only fully compatible with TIES but includes detailed case narratives that serve as the ground truth for verifying and accumulating knowledge in a growing area of interest for scholars and policymakers. Over 70% of cases were not captured by the existing TIES data or by the Global Sanctions Data Base (GSDB).

We hope that the dataset will enrich both the field's understanding of economic sanctions generally but also of Chinese foreign policy by allowing for the comparative analysis of China's sanctions behavior. Since the end of the Cold War, China has become the third largest sender of sanctions in the world, after the United States and the European Union, yet it is neglected in existing data sets. By drawing on the growing qualitative research on Chinese economic coercion from area experts, the CES fills in this gap and enables the emergence of an authoritarian sanctions literature that engages in dialogue, based on comparable data and methods, with the US and EU-dominated mainstream sanctions literature. Our findings suggest that Chinese sanctions succeed at comparable or lower rates than those by the US and EU. We hope that this data will enable scholars to explore research questions such as when and why Chinese economic sanctions are effective or successful.

We will maintain a web-based depository where one can download the updated China episodes in both a TIES-compatible format and a stand-alone format with these new variables we added. We also hope that our framework for collecting new data about non-Western economic sanctions transparently through the narratives-based approach will enable collab-

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oration to create similarly inter-operable sanctions data for countries like Russia and India, which are likely also underrepresented in existing datasets. We believe the narratives-based approach that we describe in this paper combines the best of qualitative research and quantitative research methods to foster the accumulation of knowledge about China's economic sanctions.

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A Appendix

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Figure 4: Sample CES Narrative

CASE ID: 199108710220
China sanctioned France for its arm sales to Taiwan

On 27 September 1991, France announced its approval of the sale of 16 unarmed frigate hulls to Taiwan. China, on 28 September, expressed "strong dissatisfaction" over France's decision by summoning French Ambassador Claude Martin. France finally sold the six frigates to Taiwan for $2.8 billion in 1991, causing a freeze in diplomatic relations between Paris and Beijing.

On 18 November 1992, France signed the contract to sell Taiwan 60 Mirage fighter jets regardless of China's strong opposition and threats of "retaliatory measures'. China closed the French consulate in Guangzhou in December 1992. In January 1993, France officially confirmed the sale of 60 Mirage jet fighters to Taiwan and 1,500 missiles for $3.8 billion (Dawkins 1993). In March 1993, French companies in China reported that many contracts had been frozen and all negotiations for future business deals had stopped (Cohen 1994). In November 1993, the German government secured approximately $4 billion in new contracts in China, including for the Guangzhou subway project, from which French companies were excluded (Cohen 1994). Finally, in January 1994, China signed an agreement with France to end sanctions and restore friendly relations: 'In view of the concerns of the Chinese side, the French government has undertaken not to authorize any French enterprises to participate in the arming of Taiwan' (Cohen 1994, 11).

In April 2020, Taiwan would buy the Dagaie MK2 decoy launcher from a unit of French group DCI to upgrade the 25-year-old missile interference system of French-built Lafayette frigates.
On Tuesday (May 12) 2020, Beijing demanded that France cancel an arms deal with Taiwan and warns Paris that it could harm diplomatic relations between the two countries. The French foreign ministry on Wednesday (May 13) responded to China's complaint by first reiterating its adherence to the "one China policy." France dismissed Chinese warnings and said it was implementing existing deals with Taiwan and that China and other countries should focus on battling the coronavirus pandemic instead.

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Table 7: Sanctions by Target State

Target State	Threaten	Impose	UNSC	WTO
United States of America	30	18	0	12
European Union	5	3	0	4
Liberia	5	5	5	0
Sierra Leone	5	5	5	0
Vietnam	4	3	0	0
Canada	4	6	0	1
Angola	4	4	4	0
DR Congo	4	4	4	0
Cote D'Ivoire	4	4	4	0
Iran	4	4	4	0
Somalia	4	4	4	0
Afghanistan	3	3	3	0
Japan	3	4	0	1
Haiti	2	2	2	0
Iraq	2	2	2	0
Mongolia	2	2	0	0
Rwanda	2	2	2	0
Germany	2	1	0	0
Mexico	1	0	0	0
Slovakia	1	0	0	0
United Kingdom	1	0	0	0
Albania	1	1	0	0
Austria	1	1	0	0
Central African Republic	1	1	1	0
Czech Republic	1	1	0	0
Denmark	1	1	0	0
Eritrea	1	1	1	0
Ethiopia	1	1	1	0
France	1	2	0	0
Guinea-Bissau	1	1	1	0
North Korea	1	1	1	0
South Korea	1	2	0	1
Lebanon	1	1	1	0
Libya	1	1	1	0
Malaysia	1	1	0	0
Myanmar	1	1	1	0
Norway	1	1	0	0
Portugal	1	1	0	0
Russia	1	2	0	0
Turkey	1	1	0	0
Yugoslavia	1	1	1	0
Taiwan	0	2	0	0
Australia	0	2	0	0
Netherlands	0	1	0	0
New Zealand	0	1	0	0
Palau	0	1	0	0
Philippines	0	1	0	0
Sweden	0	1	0	0
Total	112	108	48	19

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Chinese Economic Sanctions 1949-2020: Introducing the China TIES Dataset Codebook

March 5, 2024

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1 The Data

The data collection proceeded in five stages. First, and emulating the original TIES process, cases were selected for candidacy through a time-limited (1949-2020) key-word search of *NexisUni, New York Times Index* and London Times Index.[1] Second, the research assistants were then tasked with researching the cases using secondary literature [2] and assembling short written summaries of the episodes identified, including key identifying features such as the 'start date', 'target', and 'general typology' of the event. Third, after assembling a list of candidate cases, the review team was tasked with (1) reconciling the candidate cases with the original TIES cases (1949-2005) and (2) identifying 'new' or 'missed' candidate cases. We also cross-referenced all episodes with the other prominent sanctions data sets such as the GSDB, PIIE, TSC, and EUSANCT. After this reconciliation, the research assistants were tasked with writing an episode narrative following a standardized template (see Appendix) and citing secondary sources for key information for the set of CEC data set episodes. These written episode summaries were then used as the baseline or ground truth for our coding by the authors based on the code book from TIES v4. Finally, two other graduate research assistants who did not write the narratives or participate in the coding but were trained in TIES v4 were tasked with checking the coding with the narratives. Mistakes and inconsistencies identified in this quality control process were then reconciled by the authors.

A case of economic coercion begins either by threat or initiation. A threat can be rhetorical and come from an agency or government head capable of carrying out a threat (Heads of State, Heads of Government, Ministers of State or Treasury, etc.) or can be initiated through legislation, wherein the legislation eventually passes and becomes actionable.[3]. Sanctions might have multiple senders, as in the case of multilateral UN sanctions, but can only have a single target for the purposes of case listing.

Coercive episodes end when one of the following conditions are met: (1) a sender(s) indicates a lack of interest in implementing a threatened action; (2) a sender announces an end (or fails to reinstate) an economic coercion package; or (3) the sender and target reach a mutually understood 'end' to the episode. Ongoing sanctions episodes are left with the final outcome missing.

The result of this effort is the Chinese Economic Sanctions (CES) data base which contains 131 episodes where China is the sender and 88 episodes where it is the target from 1949 to 2020. The data set is fully compatible with TIES and includes all original TIES variables, but we also add a number of China-specific new variables such as who the paramount leader is, measures for

[1]The keyword search included the following terms: "China, sanction, restrict, tariff, threat, embargo, and consequence.

[2]Useful sources included the Congressional Research Service (CRS), the US Department of Commerce, reports by think tanks such as CNAS ASPI, and books by **??**

[3]The legislation much pass and become actionable for one key reason: hundreds of China-related pieces of legislation are passed yearly and most are empty threats and do not result in any policy change

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assertiveness, and an alternative measure for severity. We assign new case names and descriptions to each verified case but also retain the original TIES caseID for overlapping cases. We keep 18 unverifiable TIES episodes in the data for the sake of compatibility and because these constitute a significant portion (35%) of original TIES episodes involving China but identify these with a new variable.[4] Each remaining episode is documented with a narrative that allows users to verify, dispute, or alter our coding as they see fit. Since many of the important categorical variables such as outcome and cost are somewhat subjective, we believe this transparency is important.

We add a binary variable of "confidence" to address concerns about whether or not certain implicit sanctions episodes occurred at all (**?**) and also cite these concerns directly in the narrative. Cases where Chinese involvement is clear and well-documented such as participation in UNSC sanctions against North Korea are coded as 1 confidence while implicit and debated cases are coded as 0. Of the 131 cases of sanctions initiated by China, we are confident about 101 cases and flag 30 cases as 'low confidence' either because they are unverifiable or because the nature of the sanction threat or imposition was not explicit. Thus, a quarter of China as sender episodes is ambiguous in some way, much higher than the EUSANCT data set which relies on explicit threats and imposition of sanctions by US and EU governments to be sure, but a far cry from the claim that Chinese economic coercion cannot be studied systematically because they lack documentation.

Finally, we also add a number of China-specific time series that are important for identifying the dogs that did not bark in China's sanctions behavior. We know that China has had a consistent position in opposing Taiwan arm sales and Dalai Lama visits. However, it has responded to these episodes with sanctions only some of the time such as in 1991 to protest French arms sales to Taiwan or in 2002 to punish Mongolia for hosting the Dalai Lama. At other times sanctions are threatened implicitly but not followed through such as against US arms sales to Taiwan in 2010. And yet other times, no threats of economic sanction were detected as in the numerous times the Dalai Lama visited the United States, United Kingdom, Germany in the 2000s.

2 Variables

2.1 Case ID

Variables receive a CaseID if they meet the conditions of (1) the case was not present in the original TIES (2014). Each case which was present in the original TIES retains the original CaseID variable.

[4]We tried to verify each episode in TIES based on the dates and target state, searching through newspaper archives as well as secondary sources. Cases flagged as unverifiable by one research assistant were always assigned to a second research assistant to independently verify and confirmed by a graduate student researcher. We also relaxed the dates to search for possible episodes in the surrounding years. Since TIES does not provide any documentation of cases, this is the best we can do to verify cases they include in the data set by retracing their methodology of identifying cases.

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The CaseID variable is generated through an amalgamation of: startyear + startmonth + sender1 + ccodetarget.

2.2 Narrative Link (CES)

Each episode has a unique linked narrative to a separate GoogleDoc, containing all of the information used to justify the coding of each episode.

2.3 Caseidname (CES)

Each episode has received a unique name to signify the episode both separate from each other episode as well as (2) relative to other episodes. For example, some episodes receive “II" and “III" markers next to the case name to signify that the episode’s characteristics have similarly occurred in another episode.

2.4 Cross Referenced Cases (CES)

Our data relies upon three existing data sets for comparison and justification: The Threat and Imposition of Economic Sanctions Dataset (TIES), The Peterson Institute for International Economics Sanctions Database (PIIE), and the Global Sanctions Database (GSDB). For cross-referencing, we both included and matched cases across all three data sets relative to our contribution. We identify (1) the case ID in the peer data set; and (2) the case’s presence in the companion data set.

2.5 Ccodetarget (TIES)

This variable is coded to correspond to the Correlates of War (COW) project unique country ID variable for the target country, as well as the country’s name.

2.6 Senders (TIES)

The three sender variables identify three important parameters: (1) sender1 signifies who the coding team identifies as the sender in the dyadic pairing (always China 710, in our contribution); (2) sender2 signifies the presence of a partnered sender or China (710) as a partnered sender; and (3) primarysender identifies which state led the policy of economic coercion (largely important in multi-lateral cases, and for our purposes: UN Security Council sanctions). Each of the sender variables correspond to the Correlates of War (COW) project unique country ID variable for the sender country.

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2.7 Institution (TIES)

Mirroring the TIES project codebook, "This variable is coded as 1 if the sanctions were conducted through an international institution. To determine if the sender(s) were applying sanctions as part of a multilateral effort, some evidence must exist that a motion for the application of sanctions is considered through an international institution. The motion need not have been passed, but at least one member of the institution must threaten or propose that the body as a collective adopt sanctions against the target. The threat must be specifically mentioned to qualify, and threats from the leadership of an international institution qualify as threats from the institution. Note - formal alliances are also considered international institutions." (TIES User Manual, pp. 2-3).

2.8 Start Date (TIES)

The start date variables separately record the day, month, and year of the episode's start date.

2.9 End Date (TIES)

The end date variables separately record the day, month, and year of the episode's end date.

2.10 Ongoing (TIES)

The ongoing date variables separately record the day, month, and year of the episode's most-recent evidence of the episode remaining unresolved.

2.11 Verifiable (CES)

A decision was made to code both unaccountable original TIES cases as well as other cases identified by **?** as 'unclear' instances of sanctions. Episodes receive a 1 if the coding team determined a clear threat and/or sanction occurred based on the availability of at least three credible sources documenting the sanction.

2.12 Duration (CES)

This variable is calculated as the time passed (in days) between the onset of the first action within the episode (either threat or sanction) and either the end date (if present).

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2.13 Issue Variables (TIES)

We implement the original TIES coding scheme for identifying the issue1 (primary) and issue2 (secondary and subsequent) issue variables in each episode:

"Issue: These variables are intended to capture as best as possible the issue(s) involved in the threat/imposition of sanctions. The issue variable borrows heavily from Hufbauer, Schott, and Elliot. The issue categories are not mutually exclusive. The following three fields list up to three separate issues that are involved in the sanctions case. If there are more than three issues, the field labeled "other issue" lists the additional issues in dispute. The issue categories are as follows:

1. Contain Political Influence: Sanctions are threatened/imposed in an effort to prevent the target from exercising non-military power over a third state, a set of states, or an international institution.

2. Contain Military Behavior: Sanctions are threatened alone or in conjunction with other measures for the purposes of preventing military actions by the target state or in response to target military behavior.

3. Destabilize Regime: Sanctions are threatened/imposed alone or with other measures for the purposes of overthrowing a regime in power.

4. Release Citizens, Property, or Material: Sanctions are threatened/imposed in response to the seizure of citizens, property, or material by the target state. The seizure need not involve the citizens, property, or material of the sender, but the sender must declare that the sanctions are imposed as a result of the target's seizure.

5. Solve Territorial Dispute: Sanctions are threatened/imposed in an effort to resolve conflicts stemming from territorial disputes between the sanctioning state and the target state, or the target state and a third party. If sanctions are used in an effort to terminate a territorial dispute, the issue is coded as 5.

6. Deny Strategic Materials: The goal of the sanctioning state in threatening/imposing sanctions is to deny the target access to all or a particular set of strategic materials. For an incident to qualify under this category, the goal of the sender must be to prevent the target from enhancing its political or military capabilities through the acquisition of a certain good. Examples of strategic materials include, but are not limited to, uranium, advanced weaponry, rocket technology, or supercomputers.

7. Retaliate for Alliance or Alignment Choice: Sanctions are threatened in response to the possibility or the actual joining of an alliance or alignment between the target state and a third party.

8. Improve Human Rights: Sanctions are threatened in order to induce the target state to end repressive laws, policies, or actions. Sanctions may also be taken in an effort to compel the target state to respect individual rights.

9. End Weapons/Materials Proliferation: Sanctions are threatened/imposed in an effort to prevent the target state from supplying weapons or materials to a third party client.

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10. Terminate Support of Non-State Actors: Sanctions are threatened/imposed in an effort to compel the target state to end its support for a non-state actor. Examples may include ending support for a transnational terrorist organization or ending support for a faction in a civil war.

11. Deter or Punish Drug Trafficking Practices: Sanctions are threatened/imposed in an effort to compel the target to adopt alternative drug policies, stricter drug policies, stricter drug enforcement of the drug trade, or as a punishment for failing to adopt acceptable drug policies or practices.

12. Improve Environmental Policies: Sanctions are threatened/imposed in an effort to compel the target to adopt more stringent environmental controls. Examples of environmental issues include, but are not limited to, protection of wildlife, reduction of emissions, adoption of cleaner technology, or control of acid rain.

13. Trade Practices: Sanctions are threatened to compel the target state to alter a trade practice or to punish a target state for engaging in a particular practice. Examples may include sanctions to end protectionist measures, tariffs, trade restrictions, or devaluations. If the goal of the sender is to affect trading between the sender and the target, the issue should be coded as Trade Practices.

14. Implement Economic Reform: Sanctions are threatened to compel the target state to enact specific economic reforms. Examples may include the implementation of IMF reforms, liberalize a controlled economy, or enact specific economic legislation.

15. Other" (TIES User Manual, pp. 3-4).

2.13.1 Trade/Economy (TIES)

This variable receives a 1 if the primary issue in the episode relates to the economy or trade.

2.13.2 Issue: Non-Trade/Non-Economy (TIES)

This variable receives a 1 if the primary issue in the episode relates to something other than either the economy or trade.

2.14 Threat (TIES)

Mirroring TIES, "This variable identifies whether or not a threat was issued in this sanctions case. The variable is coded as 1 if a threat was made, and 0 if no threat was identified." (TIES User Manual, p. 4).

2.15 Threatsancttype (TIES)

Mirroring TIES, "This variable presents several categories of sanctions types threatened by the sender in string format. Using the definitions below, we identified the types of sanctions that best

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fit the threat issued in the case. Note that in several cases, there are several types of sanctions threatened.

1. Unspecific: Sender threatens to impose sanctions on the target state, but does not specifically mention what type of sanctions the target state will face.

2. Total Economic Embargo: The sender(s) stop the flow of all economic exchange to and from the target state.

3. Partial Economic Embargo: The sender(s) stop the áow of certain commodities or services to and from the target state. For example, a sender may ban all exchanges in military goods to and from a target. For a case to qualify as a partial embargo, some exchange must still be allowed while a sector's trade must be frozen.

4. Import Restriction: The sender(s) refuses to allow or places a restriction on a certain good or set of goods to be imported from the target state. Import restrictions differ from partial embargoes in that import restrictions only restrict the flow of goods into the sender(s). While the sender does not restrict the flow of goods to the target, the sender may prevent target commodities from being traded in its home markets or impose tariffs or duties on target commodities.

5. Export Restriction: The sender(s) refuses to allow certain goods or services to be exported to the target state. Export restrictions differ from partial embargoes in that export restrictions only restrict the fkow of goods to the target from the sender(s). Although the sender places no restriction on goods from the target for import, the sender does not allow a certain good or set of goods to flow out of the sender(s) firms to the target. An example of such a restriction is an export control on dual use technology.

6. Blockade: The sender(s) threatens to prevent all states from engaging in economic transactions with the target state. Such a threat may be enforced physically by the sender(s) military. An alternative is for the sender to threaten any state that engages in transactions with the target with similar economic sanctions.

7. Asset Freeze: The sender(s) threatens to partially or completely seize all assets of the target state under the sender(s)í jurisdiction. The sender cannot threaten to seize assets outside of its territorial reach. For example, if Country A threatens B with sanctions, A cannot threaten to seize B's assets in Country C.

8. Termination of Foreign Aid: The sender(s) threaten to reduce or end foreign aid or loans if the target state does not comply with the sender(s) demands.

9. Travel Ban: The sender(s) threaten to cease allowing an individual, group, or citizenry of the target country to enter the territory of the sender(s).

10. Suspension of Economic Agreement/Protocol: The sender(s) threaten to partially or completely cancel or void previous economic arrangements or contracts between the sender(s) and the target state." (TIES User Manual, pp. 5-6).

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2.16 Imposesanct (TIES)

Mirroring TIES, "This variable identifies whether or not sanctions were imposed in this case. The variable is coded as 1 if sanctions were imposed, and 0 if sanctions were not imposed" (TIES User Manual, p. 9).

2.17 Imposesancttype (TIES)

Mirroring TIES, "This variable is a string that identifies several categories of sanctions types. Using the definitions provided, choose the types of sanctions that best fits the incident in the case. If the sanctions imposed by the sender(s) does not match any of the categories, choose other.

1. Total Economic Embargo: The sender(s) stop the flow of all economic exchange to and from the target state.

2. Partial Economic Embargo: The sender(s) stop the flow of certain commodities or services to and from the target state. For example, a sender may ban all exchanges in military goods to and from a target. For a case to qualify as a partial embargo, some exchange must still be allowed while a sector's trade must be frozen.

3. Import Restriction: The sender(s) refuses to allow or places a restriction on a certain good or set of goods to be imported from the target state. Import restrictions di§er from partial embargoes in that import restrictions only restrict the flow of goods into the sender(s). While the sender does not restrict the flow of goods to the target, the sender may prevent target commodities from being traded in its home markets or impose tariffs or duties on target commodities.

4. Export Restriction: The sender(s) refuses to allow certain goods or services to be exported to the target state. Export restrictions differ from partial embargoes in that export restrictions only restrict the áow of goods to the target from the sender(s). Although the sender places no restriction on goods from the target for import, the sender does not allow a certain good or set of goods to flow out of the sender(s) firms to the target. An example of such a restriction is an export control on dual use technology.

5. Blockade: The sender(s) attempts to physically prevent all states from engaging in economic transactions with the target state. Such actions may be enforced physically by the sender(s) military. An alternative is for the sender to threaten any state that engages in transactions with the target with similar economic sanctions.

6. Asset Freeze: The sender(s) partially or completely seize all assets of the target state under the sender(s)' jurisdiction.

7. Termination of Foreign Aid: The sender(s) reduces or ends foreign aid or loans if the target state does not comply with the sender(s) demands.

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8. Travel Ban: The sender(s) ceases allowing an individual, group, or citizenry of the target country to enter the territory of the sender(s).

9. Suspension of Economic Agreement: The sender(s) threaten to partially or completely cancel or void previous economic arrangements or contracts between the sender(s) and the target state.

10. Other" (TIES User Manual, p. 10).

2.18 Diplomatic (TIES)

Mirroring the spirit of the original TIES, this variable is designed to capture whether or not a diplomatic penalty was levied/threatened by the sender against the target. The dummy variable received a '1' if the episode threatens/actually expels (a) an ambassador; (b) recalls an ambassador; (c) temporarily closes an embassy; or (d) ends diplomatic contact. (TIES User Manual, p.7).

2.19 Democracy (CES)

This variable uses imported Polity IV scores, normalized to the current date of the episode, and then transformed to a dummy (0/1) to whether or not the target is a democracy.

2.20 China Specific Issue Variables (CES)

Each of the Issue Variables are binary variables coded to reflect their presence during a given episode:

2.20.1 Tibet (CES)

We catalog all official state visits made by the Dalai Lama from 1959-present. We use the official travel record of the Dalai Lama public website to code the variable.[5] The binary variable is coded as '1' if the Dalai Lama made a state visit to the state/territory in a given year. India is always coded as '1' after 1959 because of the Dalai Lama's residence in Himachal Pradesh. We count 480 cases of Dalai Lama foreign visits in the data set, of which China responded with a threat or imposition of economic sanctions in 25 cases.

2.20.2 Taiwan (CES)

We code all country years that a given China trade partner also sells weapons to Taiwan as '1' regardless of the weapon sale size and scope. The Stockholm International Peace Research Institute (SIPRI) 'Arms Transfers Database' documents all international arms transfers since 1950, and

[5] https://www.dalailama.com/

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most-recently updated in March 2021.[6] We count 160 episodes of Taiwan arms sales, the vast majority involving the United States, and China responded with a threat or imposition of economic sanctions in only 11 cases.

2.20.3 Human Rights (CES)

This variable is designed to capture sanctioning activity involving a perceived threat to human rights or the presence of human rights as an issue in the sanctioning issue space. Episodes receive a '1' code if the issue is present, and a '0' if not.

2.21 SeverityTWL (CES)

A team of 10 research assistants were tasked with rating the severity of a sanctions episode on a 1 to 10 scale, with 1 being 'extremely minor' and 10 being 'catastrophic'. The scores were then averaged and reviewed to the nearest whole number.

2.22 Anticipated and Real Costs (CES)

Mirroring the strategy of the KUTWLseverity variable, a team of 10 research assistants were tasked with rating sanctions episodes on a scale, relative to (A) Anticipated Sender costs; (B) Anticipated Target costs; (C) Real Sender Costs; and (D) Real Target Costs. Variables received a 1 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) minor[7], 2 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) significant[8], and 3 if the damage was either predicted to be (anticipated) or actually (real) catastrophic[9]:

2.22.1 AnticSenderTWL (CES)

This variable analyses the perceived costs to the sender prior to the initiation of an economic coercion episode:

1 'minor'

2 'significant'

3 'catastrophic'

[6] SEE: https://www.sipri.org/databases/armstransfers

[7] 'minor' damage is denoted as limited or low-impact

[8] 'significant' damage is denoted as disruptive, or inflicting notable damage to the economy

[9] 'catastrophic' damage is denoted as intended to or actually grinding economic activity to a hault or ending the trading relationship between two countries

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2.22.2 AnticTargetTWL (CES)

This variable analyses the perceived costs to the target prior to the initiation of an economic coercion episode:
1 'minor'
2 'significant'
3 'catastrophic'

2.22.3 SenderCostTWL (CES)

This variable analyses the real costs to the sender due to the initiation of an economic coercion episode:
1 'minor'
2 'significant'
3 'catastrophic'

2.22.4 TargetCostTWL (CES)

This variable analyses the real costs to the target due to the initiation of an economic coercion episode:
1 'minor'
2 'significant'
3 'catastrophic'

2.23 Targeted 'Smart' Sanctions (CES)

? identify sanctions which target: 'business, regime, or military interests' as 'targeted'. However, the expansive measure of 'smart' sanctions undersells China's transformation between the two periods. We implement a stricter definition of 'smart' sanctions, excluding particular 'whole of government targeting' approaches the original TIES coded as 'smart' (ex: China's 1967 embargo of Burma) more inline with what the literature suggests. As a result, we identify 14 episodes which meet the **?** expansive definition (of 98), but fail to meet ours, resulting in a total of 84 'smart' episodes of Chinese economic coercion–64% of the universe of Chinese episodes are 'smart' in character.

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2.24 Sanction Imposition Start Date (TIES)

The sanction imposition start date variables separately record the day, month, and year of the episode's sanction start date.

2.25 Finaloutcome (TIES)

Mirroring the original TIES, "This variable is designed to capture the nature of the termination of the sanctions incident. The coder should choose from among the categories listed. If the outcome does not match the categories listed, the coder should code the variable as other and fill in the outcome in the blank field at the bottom. The categories are:

1. Partial Acquiescence by Target to threat: The target state agrees to some of the demands of the sender(s) and adjusts only these behaviors accordingly while continuing the engage in some of the offensive behavior prior to imposition of sanctions.

2. Complete Acquiescence by Target to threat: The target state agrees to all of the demands of the sender(s) and adjusts its behavior accordingly prior to the imposition of sanctions.

3. Capitulation by the Sender(s) in threat stage: Although the sender threatens sanctions, the sender refuses to impose sanctions despite the refusal of the target to alter its behavior. 4. Stalemate in the Threat Stage: Although the issue remains unresolved following the sender's threat, the target does not alter its behavior and the sender does not impose sanctions.

5. Negotiated Settlement: The target state agrees to alter some of its behavior in exchange for actions taken by the sender(s) prior to the imposition of sanctions. The sender(s) must perform some action in exchange for the target state's compliance for this variable to be coded as 1.

6. Partial Acquiescence by the Target State following sanctions imposition: The target state agrees to some of the demands of the sender(s) and adjusts only these behaviors accordingly while continuing the engage in some of the offensive behavior after sanctions are imposed.

7. Total Acquiescence by Target State following sanctions imposition: The target state agrees to all of the demands of the sender(s) and adjusts its behavior accordingly after sanctions are imposed.

8. Capitulation by Sender after Imposition: The sender state removes sanctions despite the refusal of the target to alter its behavior.

9. Stalemate after Sanctions Imposition: Sanctions are imposed by the sender(s), but the target does not alter its behavior.

10. Negotiated Settlement following sanctions imposition: The target state agrees to alter some of its behavior in exchange for actions taken by the sender(s) following the imposition of sanctions. The sender(s) must perform some action in exchange for the target stateís compliance for this variable to be coded as 1" (TIES User Manual pp. 12-13).

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2.26 CostsTWL (CES)

The Costs variables build upon the original TIES effort to capture a scaled (1-3) measure of how well the costs of the episode are anticipated by the sender. Both variables, however, where significantly under-coded in the original TIES due to a lack of available information (real monetary costs) related to the economic impacts of the episode. For example, a coding of '2' or 'Major' in the original TIES sought to measure a 5% economic impact. Instead, we task coders to take a general cursory overview of the case and measure Minor(1), or "anticipated to have little-to-no impact on the overall trading relationship"; Major(2), or "anticipated to have an impactful and measurable impact on the overall trading relationship"; and Catastrophic, or "designed to destroy the trading relationship and/or overall economy" (3) impacts.

2.27 SettlementNatureTWL (CES)

The Settlement Nature variables build upon the original TIES effort to capture a scaled (1-10) measure of how well senders and targets fared at the end (or during ongoing) episodes: however we see the episode space as a consequence of a bargaining interaction, meaning each state gains at the cost of the other. A 'neutral' interaction between the two states would thus begin with a 5-5 coding for both the settlementnaturesender and settlementnaturetarget variables, to be modified by the result of the interaction. The higher the discrepancy between these two variables, the more favorable the result of the episode is for the state with the higher proportion out of ten.

Mirroring the effort of the original TIES, we task coders to conceptualize factors such as (1) the meeting of overall goals; and (2) the general environment post-episode to give a score from 1-10 to each side. However, departing from the original TIES, these scores are subtracted from a 'bank' of ten–if a sender/target receives a score out of ten, the opposing state must receive the residual score.

2.28 TargcapitulateTWL (CES)

Did the target of the sanction change its behavior in response to the initiation of an episode? The variable recieves a 1 if the target changed behavior, and a 0 if not.

2.29 Chinaoutcome)TWL (CES)

We extend this effect to the PRC specifically, subtracting the PRC's 'sender' nature from its 'target' nature, arriving at a scaled -10 to 10 score for the result of the episode for the PRC. Cases can be considered as "successful" if the value of the variable for the sender is greater than the value of the variable for the target.

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2.30 PRCleader (CES)

This variable lists both the name and a categorical code for the Paramount Leader of China in a given year of the episode.

2.31 China MID Data (CES)

This variable imports data from the Militarized Interstate Dispute (MID) dataset. We use a dummy variable coding the existence of a militarized interstate dispute initiated either by China against the opposing dyadic pair, or with China on the receiving end during each episode year.

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CASE ID: 199108710220
China sanctioned France for its arm sales to Taiwan

On 27 September 1991, France announced its approval of the sale of 16 unarmed frigate hulls to Taiwan. China, on 28 September, expressed "strong dissatisfaction" over France's decision by summoning French Ambassador Claude Martin. France finally sold the six frigates to Taiwan for $2.8 billion in 1991, causing a freeze in diplomatic relations between Paris and Beijing.

On 18 November 1992, France signed the contract to sell Taiwan 60 Mirage fighter jets regardless of China's strong opposition and threats of "retaliatory measures'. China closed the French consulate in Guangzhou in December 1992. In January 1993, France officially confirmed the sale of 60 Mirage jet fighters to Taiwan and 1,500 missiles for $3.8 billion (Dawkins 1993). In March 1993, French companies in China reported that many contracts had been frozen and all negotiations for future business deals had stopped (Cohen 1994). In November 1993, the German government secured approximately $4 billion in new contracts in China, including for the Guangzhou subway project, from which French companies were excluded (Cohen 1994). Finally, in January 1994, China signed an agreement with France to end sanctions and restore friendly relations: 'In view of the concerns of the Chinese side, the French government has undertaken not to authorize any French enterprises to participate in the arming of Taiwan' (Cohen 1994, 11).

In April 2020, Taiwan would buy the Dagaie MK2 decoy launcher from a unit of French group DCI to upgrade the 25-year-old missile interference system of French-built Lafayette frigates.
On Tuesday (May 12) 2020, Beijing demanded that France cancel an arms deal with Taiwan and warns Paris that it could harm diplomatic relations between the two countries. The French foreign ministry on Wednesday (May 13) responded to China's complaint by first reiterating its adherence to the "one China policy." France dismissed Chinese warnings and said it was implementing existing deals with Taiwan and that China and other countries should focus on battling the coronavirus pandemic instead.

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Figure 1: Sample CEC Narrative